

Is the Rent Too High? Land Ownership and Monopoly Power*

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Abstract

Pricing power in real estate markets can reduce housing supply and redevelopment relative to the social optimum. We show how pricing power interacts with popular redevelopment subsidies and zoning regulations. Using building-level rental income data from NYC, we find that increased concentration is correlated with increased rents. Finally, we use the model to estimate the first building-level housing elasticity, finding that markups account for between one sixth and one third of rents in the city.

Keywords: monopolistic competition, market power, concentration, housing demand, redevelopment subsidies, zoning

JEL Classification: R31, R38, L13

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1 Introduction

Property rights grant landowners exclusive use over parcels of land. Since Adam Smith, economists have considered whether this arrangement endows landowners with monopoly pricing power. If parcels of land or the houses built on those parcels are perfectly substitutable and a large number of parcels or houses are made available by many individual landowners in friction-free markets, then land and housing markets might be best approximated by perfect competition. Alternatively, differentiation, frictions, and concentration may make land and housing markets less than perfectly competitive. While the recent rise of institutional landlords has increased interest in the effects of concentration and pricing power, the theoretical and empirical implications of pricing power in real estate remain poorly understood.

This paper investigates the economic impact of pricing power due to land rights. We answer two questions: how should pricing power alter our understanding of urban land use policies and is this power economically meaningful? We show how pricing power, derived from the combination of exclusive land ownership rights and idiosyncratic renter tastes, interacts with redevelopment incentives and zoning regulations and examine the possibility that restrictions on land ownership concentration can reduce rents. Using data on multi-unit residential rental buildings in New York City (NYC), we estimate a positive concentration-rent correlation. Estimating the model on our data, we measure finite building own-price elasticities and markups to be between one third and one sixth of rents in our data.

We model the construction and rental of housing units in the presence of idiosyncratic preferences for locations, which generates downward-sloping demand for units at individual parcels or buildings, which we call a building's *residual demand*. While aggregate demand can be downward sloping in competitive frameworks, when *residual* demand is downward sloping, landlords with exclusive right to rent at those plots have pricing power, even when profits from rents are capitalized into land values. This restricts supply on three margins: reducing the size of new buildings, removing existing units from the market when demand is low, and reducing the pace of redevelopment when demand is high, even when such redevelopment is socially optimal given costs.¹ We call this third margin 'redevelopment failure.'² In Appendix A.9, we show how markups and these mar-

¹Vogell (2022) documents the second margin in interviews with New York City landlords.

²This is related to the 'lock-in' effect of vintage capital in Boustan, Bunten, and Hearey (2018). Siodla (2015); Hornbeck and Keniston (2017) discuss redevelopment in the presence of natural disasters. A large

gins of supply constraints act as a dispersing force in a monocentric city.

We explore the implications on three types of urban policies: redevelopment subsidies, ownership concentration, and zoning. First, because of redevelopment failure, subsidizing the decision to redevelop can improve welfare. We explore a low-information alternative to optimal subsidies that does not require knowledge of demand and supply elasticities: pairing lump-sum development subsidies with promised rent reductions. These policies echo the common pairing of local tax subsidies with inclusionary zoning, including the important 421a redevelopment subsidy program in NYC. While such policies are often viewed as equity-oriented, the ability of redevelopment subsidies in conjunction with below-market rent commitments to reduce redevelopment failure offers a potential efficiency justification for such programs.

Second, we explore restrictions on ownership concentration, as recently proposed in Berlin (Stone, 2019). With non-decreasing marginal cost, concentrated owners raise markups, internalizing the impact of one parcel’s pricing decision on profits at other parcels.³ We extend Nocke and Schutz (2018b) to find conditions under which increased concentration also generates increases in rents for all other products—in our case parcels. This provides a theoretical basis for work studying the impact of landlord and developer concentration (Cosman and Quintero, 2021; Raymond et al., 2016).

Third, markups amplify the effect of zoning, as zoning constraints at one parcel raise rents at other unzoned parcels through markups. At the same time, pricing power attenuates the impact of upzoning through redevelopment failure, and because redeveloped upzoned parcels revert to monopolistic rather than efficient levels.

To quantify the potential forces in our model, we construct a building-level dataset for multi-unit residential buildings in NYC using a combination of public and scraped data. While Manhattan may be a unique environment, outer borough density is similar to other urban markets and provides similar results.

First, we examine several key predictions of our model in the data. We find *non-causal* correlations in the data consistent with the predictions of our model: a 10% increase in Neighborhood Tabulation Area concentration is correlated with a 0.4-0.5% increase in average building rents, even accounting for time-invariant building characteristics.⁴ At

previous literature (e.g., Rosenthal and Helsley, 1994) explores redevelopment under perfect competition.

³This result builds on Nocke and Schutz (2018a), part of a growing literature on multi-product oligopoly (Affeldt, Filistrucchi, and Klein, 2013; Jaffe and Weyl, 2013; Nocke and Schutz, 2018a)

⁴Neighborhood Tabulation Area (‘NTA’) is an NYC-specific statistical geography that is a collection of Census tracts and is smaller than Public Use Micro Areas.

the same time, while our model predicts general equilibrium effects of zoning on rents through markups, when instrumenting for zoning constraint changes using rezonings, we do not find evidence of effects of these constraints on rent changes. Finally, we compare the model-implied subsidies to those given under the 421a program in NYC, which in the time period of our study was the city’s largest redevelopment subsidy. Here, we find that while the modal difference between the two is small, on the whole, our model-based subsidies are more conservative: on the buildings that receive 421a subsidies, our model-implied subsidies are smaller on average, with no subsidies for roughly 30% of 421a program buildings.

We then estimate the structural parameters of our model to calculate building-level own-price elasticities (OPEs) of demand—not previously estimated in the literature—to evaluate the quantitative scope of markups.⁵ We estimate OPEs using three sets of instruments with distinct sources of variation and identifying assumptions, as in [Hornbeck and Moretti \(2018\)](#). As is common in estimates of housing demand, we use rival characteristics (‘BLP instruments’) that affect the landlord’s ability to mark up rent. We also use a static version of the synthetic tax instrument in [Watson and Ziv \(2025\)](#) as well as historic tax and construction costs as alternative cost shifters. The complementary strategies yield similar parameter estimates, with median OPEs between $[-6.15, -2.75]$.⁶

We apply these results to characterize markups. Here, our model provides key insights into the limitations of markup estimation in an urban context and gives guidance for how OPEs can be estimated. The model captures two sources of capacity constraints: buildings’ sizes are constrained by policy (zoning) and, because housing is durable, determined long before current renters demand housing. These factors complicate traditional estimates of markups. While an appealing strategy is to estimate markups on constrained and unconstrained buildings alike (e.g. [Ramoutar \(2025\)](#)), our capacity-constrained model demonstrates that, for the vast majority of buildings in NYC, a Lerner-index calculation of markups assumes that landlords’ first-order conditions bind, and therefore that the level of current demand does not place the landlord at a corner solution. Instead, we isolate the small margin of buildings (214) that were recently constructed below zoning constraints, i.e. those buildings which are unconstrained by policy or capacity constraint choices made over a decade before demand is observed. For this small group, we find a median markup over marginal costs—including amortized purchase, maintenance, and leasing costs as

⁵Our estimation method is based on differentiated product demand estimation (e.g., [Berry, 1994](#)). See [Kuminoff, Smith, and Timmins \(2013\)](#) for a literature overview.

⁶In previous versions of this draft, we estimated nested and mixed logit models with similar results.

well as and outside options—between one sixth and one third of the rent. Overall, demand elasticity measures are similar though slightly more elastic for the rest of the city. For these buildings, our model explains that estimated markups are only accurate if we assume they are below full occupancy.

A large literature explores the impact of housing supply constraints (Glaeser, 2007; Glaeser and Gottlieb, 2008; Hsieh and Moretti, 2019). This paper introduces pricing power as an additional source of housing constraints. While Proposition 2 shows that markups can amplify policy constraints in general equilibrium, pricing power also reduces supply in the absence of policy constraints and likely accounts for a 16-36% wedge between rents and costs. Appendix A.9 shows that pricing power acts as a dispersing force, flattening and widening the city. We find markups for new, zoning unconstrained buildings approximate those implied at older, zoning constrained buildings, suggesting that the latter group may not be far from monopoly-optimal rent, and that reductions in policy constraints alone will not eliminate rent-cost wedges.

Recent empirical work has focused on housing ownership concentration, especially institutional ownership (Raymond et al., 2016; Cosman and Quintero, 2021; Gurun et al., 2023; Barbieri and Dobbels, 2025; Coven, 2025; Gorback, Qian, and Zhu, 2025). In addition to evidence in this vein, we provide a theoretical basis for this nascent work, establishing evidence of markups in housing and both a rationale for how and necessary conditions for when concentration impacts rents. Gurun et al. (2023) find that institutional investor ownership mergers lead to higher area rental rates. Our merger analysis complements this work by extending merger analysis beyond institutional owners and single-family homes to include non-institutional owners in an urban, multi-family market, and by examining building-level rental income, which allows us to exclude the merging landlords from the analysis, to incorporate building-level fixed effects to address potential selection issues, and to examine variation on income from continuing renters as opposed to posted rents.

Our paper also makes a contribution to the empirical literature on housing demand elasticities. Previous estimates of housing demand have focused on the elasticity of *aggregate* demand—i.e., the housing-consumption trade-off. Our object of interest is the price elasticity of demand of a given building—i.e., consumers’ willingness to substitute *between* rival buildings. These are to our knowledge the literature’s first estimates of building own-price elasticities. Our estimates also imply aggregate demand elasticities that are consistent with those previous estimates.⁷

⁷Following Berry and Jia (2010), we estimate that if *all* building rents increased by 1%, aggregate rental

Section 2 lays out our model and Section 3 uses the model to derive results on housing policy. Section 4 introduces our data. Section 5 explores the predictions of the model and redevelopment subsidies in the data. Section 6 estimates own-price elasticities and Section 7 concludes. Appendices [A](#), [B](#), and [C](#) provide additional theoretical results, data construction details, and empirical results and robustness checks, respectively.

2 Model

We first set up the optimization routines for each agent in our model. A social planner sets construction subsidy rules for each parcel. Next, developers are endowed with spatially differentiated parcels and decide whether to (re)develop before selling.⁸ After developers make decisions, landlords buy buildings and post rents for their buildings. Renters endowed with income and idiosyncratic tastes for the differentiated parcels see posted rents and choose residence locations. This setup allows us to consider how redevelopment responds to long-run changes in demand and explore how pricing, leasing, and redevelopment decisions are impacted by pricing power. We abstract from dynamic rent flow considerations, but our model is consistent with a dynamic model with constant capital prices and no depreciation.⁹

Section [2.2](#) characterizes the subgame-perfect equilibrium of the model. Appendix [A.9](#) explores extensions, including a competitive benchmark case, a version of the following model embedded into a monocentric city, and the introduction of entry, exit, and risk.

2.1 Setup

Parcels, Developers, and Landlords The space, a city, is comprised of a set of discrete parcels that differ according to their underlying quality a , drawn without replacement from a distribution $G(a)$.¹⁰ Parcels with higher values of a are higher amenity value to renters. We refer to a as “location quality” and to differences in a as vertical differentiation in parcels. As we assume each building’s quality is uniquely drawn, we simplify our

demand responds with an elasticity between $[0.60, 2.4]$ ([Albouy and Ehrlich, 2018](#)). Using hedonic approaches, [Gyourko and Voith \(2000\)](#) and [Chen, Clapp, and Tirtiroglu \(2011\)](#) find elasticities above 1.

⁸Parcels may be “greenfield” with zero units or “brownfield” with some existing structure.

⁹See equation 2.5 in [Rosenthal and Helsley \(1994\)](#).

¹⁰By drawing without replacement, we eliminate the possibility of two locations sharing the same amenity value. In our empirical sections we will index parcels by j rather than by amenity value.

theoretical discussion by indexing each building by its realized quality a from the set $\mathcal{A}$.¹¹ In the exposition that follows, we make the simplifying assumption that a is exogenous.¹² We set a_0 as living out of the city's rental market (i.e., an outside-option).

Each parcel may have a building with an initial number of units, $q_{a,0} \geq 0$, and is owned by a unique developer, indexed by $d \in D$, who chooses whether to sell the parcel 'as-is,' in which case the number of units remains $q_{a,0}$, or redevelop to $q_{a,1}$ before selling to a landlord who leases the units.¹³ Each developer—subsequently each landlord—owns one parcel.

Redevelopment requires a cost $C_a^d(q_{a,1})$ that is an a -dependent step function, including a fixed cost $C_a^d(0) \geq 0$, a constant marginal cost below the zoning limit denoted $c_a^d > 0$ and a higher cost above the limit $c_a^d + \theta_z$, where θ_z is an arbitrarily high cost of exceeding the zoning regulations.¹⁴ Developers choose whether to redevelop and—conditional on redevelopment—the quantity $q_{a,1}$ to maximize profit:

$$\pi_a^d = \max_{\mathbb{1}_{redev}, q_{a,1}} \begin{cases} s_a(a, q_{a,0}) & \text{if } \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 0 \\ s_a(a, q_{a,1}) - C_a^d(q_{a,1}) + S_a & \text{if } \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 1 \end{cases} \quad (1)$$

where $\mathbb{1}_{redev}$ is an indicator function for the choice to redevelop, s_a is the realized sale price of the building, which would be $s_a(a, q_{a,0})$ if sold 'as-is' or $s_a(a, q_{a,1})$ if sold after redevelopment to size $q_{a,1}$, and S_a is a parcel-specific redevelopment subsidy paid for by the planner out of deficit spending.

For each parcel, a competitive fringe of potential landlords, indexed by $f \in F$, bids for the sole right to lease units and set rents in the building at that location. Landlords who purchase buildings provide a mass of renters with housing at a positive step-function cost $C_a^f(q_a^f)$ with positive, constant marginal cost c_a^f below the developer-prescribed capacity (and, because a large set of costs may be borne by lessors without any occupancy, inclusive of a potential building-specific fixed cost) and $c_a^f + \theta_k$ above, where q_a^f is the mass of renters the landlord accommodates in equilibrium. θ_k is presumed to be arbitrarily higher than

¹¹As our empirical specifications include multiple building characteristics, later we will use a more standard indexing of buildings by their parcel, $j \in \mathcal{J}$.

¹²In our empirical work, we consider that in the data building and parcel characteristics are a mix of endogenously chosen and exogenously given. In Appendix A.9.6 we allow a to be endogenously chosen.

¹³We refer to buildings and parcels interchangeably throughout.

¹⁴We allow for this hypothetical for technical reasons discussed below.

the above-zoning marginal cost of construction. Landlord f 's profit from parcel a is:

$$\pi_a^f = r_a \cdot q_a^f - C_a^f(q_a^f) - s_a \quad (2)$$

where total revenue is rent r_a collected times the quantity offered to renters q_a^f , which is constrained to be at or below the quantity chosen by the developer, $q_{a,d}$.¹⁵

By modeling short and long run (zoning) capacity as arbitrarily high marginal costs beyond a determined level, following Maggi (1996), we recover a pure strategy equilibrium, avoiding a well-known existence problem in differentiated product markets with strict capacity constraints (Wauthy et al., 2014).¹⁶ Strict constraints at one building can provide incentive for an unconstrained building to deviate to off-path higher rents, which jeopardizes the existence of pure strategy equilibrium (Benassy, 1991).

While developer-driven rezoning is common enough to potentially justify our soft constraint approach, hard constraints might arguably be more realistic in our context. Nevertheless, these particular diseconomies of scale only govern “off-the-equilibrium responses which are never observed in practice” (Goldberg, 1995) and so, in equilibrium, rents are set such that there is no rationing and no unprofitable sales. Looking ahead toward our empirical results, once a pure strategy equilibrium exists, “the effects of capacity constraints can be safely ignored for estimation purposes” (Froeb, Tschantz, and Crooke, 2003)—that is, all options are available to all consumers.

Alternative rules to avoid nonexistence include assuming renters face increasing search costs per building but do not observe building capacity (Schulz, 1999) or assuming linear demand and small product shares (Yin and Ng, 1997; Schulz, 2000; Yin and Ng, 2000). Additionally, allowing for off-equilibrium arbitrage through post-lease exchanges (e.g., subleasing agreements) allows us to forgo informational assumptions in Schulz (1999). We elaborate on our current approach and discuss these alternatives in Appendix A.1.

Renters There is a unit mass of heterogeneous renters, indexed by $i \in N$, whose utility is derived from consumption and location amenities. Renters draw idiosyncratic tastes for each location, $\epsilon_{i,a}$, from a standard type-one extreme value distribution.¹⁷ Thus, the utility

¹⁵We do not allow for price discrimination. An alternative dynamic search setting where landlords price and market units individually retains our static setting's results.

¹⁶Closer to our setup, Greenfield and Sandford (2018) model N products, asymmetric costs and a prohibition on rationing.

¹⁷We follow Chamberlin (1933) in founding pricing power for individual plots in heterogeneous preferences. Several alternative micro-foundations are possible, including search and matching frictions. Adopt-

of renter i at a is:

$$U_i(a) = F(a, r_a) + \epsilon_{i,a}. \quad (3)$$

Rent is in the utility function because we have implicitly substituted the budget constraint for consumption. Renters choose among all locations a to maximize utility taking amenities, rents, and personal income as given.

Demand Market demand is a function of the vector of rents and building qualities:

$$q_a^D = D_a(\vec{a}, \vec{r}) = \frac{e^{F(a, r_a)}}{\sum_{\tilde{a} \in \mathcal{A}} e^{F(\tilde{a}, r_{\tilde{a}})}}. \quad (4)$$

We write $q_a^D = D_a(r_a)$, suppressing other arguments to ease notation. We can invert the system of demand equations to recover inverse demand functions for each building, $r_a = R_a(q_a)$, that are differentiable with respect to quantity, $\frac{\partial R_a}{\partial q_a}(q_a)$. We refer to building-level demand as the building's *residual demand*, in contrast to aggregate or market-level demand. Anticipating the rent-setting decision, the equilibrium own-price elasticity of demand is:

$$\varepsilon_a = \frac{\partial D_a(r_a)/\partial r_a}{D_a(r_a)/r_a} = \frac{\partial F(a, r_a)}{\partial r} \cdot r_a \cdot (1 - D_a(r_a)) < 0. \quad (5)$$

The own-price elasticity of residual demand, which is derived from renters' idiosyncratic preferences for buildings, is key to pricing power and markups. Appendix A.9 explores an alternative model where this residual demand is completely elastic.

Social Welfare We define the *local* social welfare as the economic surplus at each location a , the sum of both renter (consumer) surplus and developer (producer) surplus, minus the deficit spending transfer from the planner to the producer:

$$W_a(q_a^e) = \int_0^{q_a^e} \left(R_a(q^e) - c_a^f(q^e) - \mathbb{1}_{redev} \cdot c_a^d(q^e) \right) dq, \quad (6)$$

where q_a^e is the equilibrium quantity for building a , which depends on the redevelopment decision (i.e., the value of $\mathbb{1}_{redev}$). Note that the transfer from the planner to the developer cancels out in this calculation. We assume every other building is at its equilibrium quantity. Note that any redevelopment subsidy, S_a , is paid for *ex post* after all decisions

ing these isomorphic stories would not change our estimation results, although doing so would naturally change their interpretation.

and drops out from the local welfare calculation. We define *total* social welfare as the total economic surplus in the city, where total social welfare is $W = \sum_{a \in \mathcal{A}} W_a$, save the outside option.

We consider a city planner who wishes to maximize W in order to achieve allocative efficiency in the city and can regulate and subsidize the rental market. However, the city planner does not know the preferences or opportunity costs of market participants and cannot use unobservable information when setting policies.

We define a *locally welfare-improving redevelopment* to be a redeveloped structure that has higher local welfare relative to *the existing structure*; i.e., $W_a(q_a^e(\mathbb{1}_{redev} = 1)) > W_a(q_{a,0}^e)$. We define a *locally welfare-improving policy* to be a subsidy S_a or additional policy such that $W_a(q_a^e)$ is higher under the policy compared to *laissez faire*, and to be welfare-improving overall if W is higher under the policy.

2.2 Equilibrium

A subgame-perfect equilibrium is defined by a schedule of redevelopment decisions and quantities, posted rents, and renter location choices such that conditional on the actions of other agents and rivals, no developer can increase profits by making a different redevelopment decision, no landlord can increase profits by changing posted rents, and no renter can increase utility by choosing to pay posted rents at any other parcel. We assume θ_z and θ_k are high enough so no post-developer or above zoning capacity is installed.

2.2.1 Joint Landlord-Developer Problem

Because it most closely tracks the canonical monopolist problem where quantities are set to maximize profit, we first consider the case of a single landlord-developer, maximizing the joint profits of the two agents. With the sale price transfer canceling, the joint landlord-developer maximizes profits from renting net of costs of any redevelopment:

$$\pi = \max_{\mathbb{1}_{redev}, q_a} \begin{cases} R_a(q_a) \cdot q_a - C_a^d(q_a) - C_a^f(q_a) + S_a & \text{if } \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 1 \\ R_a(q_a) \cdot q_a - C_a^f(q_a) & \text{if } \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 0 \end{cases} \quad (7)$$

where quantity chosen is $q_a \equiv q_{a,0}$ if $\mathbb{1}_{redev} = 0$ and is $q_a \equiv q_{a,1} \leq q_{a,z}$ if $\mathbb{1}_{redev} = 1$.

If the landlord-developer chooses not to redevelop, their maximum quantity is fixed at $q_{a,0}$, but they may choose not to rent all units. They will price on the demand curve at or

below $q_{a,0}$, conscious of the fact that per-unit rent is falling with quantity $\partial R_a(q_a)/\partial q_a < 0$.

Redevelopment and Redevelopment Failure Redevelopment occurs if the associated cost is less than the difference between the maximal marginal profits with and without it:

$$C_a^d(q_{a,1}^*) < [R_a(q_{a,1}^*) \cdot q_{a,1}^* - C_a^f(q_{a,1}^*)] - [R_a(q_{a,0}^*) \cdot q_{a,0}^* - C_a^f(q_{a,0}^*)], \quad (8)$$

for a quantity $q_{a,1}^* \leq q_{a,z}$ that is optimal conditional on choosing redevelopment and a quantity $q_{a,0}^*$ that is optimal conditional on not redeveloping.

An immediate implication is that redevelopment only occurs when the optimal leasing quantity is higher than the original quantity: $q_{a,1}^* > q_{a,0}^*$. Furthermore, when zoning binds on the initial building, $q_{a,z} < q_{a,0}$, there is no redevelopment.

If this criterion for redevelopment is met, then the problem becomes the typical monopolist problem with composite marginal cost $c_a^d(q_a) + c_a^f(q_a)$, so that the landlord-developer sets q_a^* such that $\frac{\partial R_a}{\partial q_a}(q_a^*)q_a^* + R_a(q_a^*) = c_a^d(q_a^*) + c_a^f(q_a^*)$. If the market was perfectly competitive, then landlords would set $q_a > q_a^*$ such that $R_a(q_a) = c_a^d(q_a) + c_a^f(q_a)$. This leads us to the following definition of what we term local redevelopment failure.

Definition 1. *Local redevelopment failure* occurs at location a if developers at a choose not to redevelop while the redevelopment would be locally welfare-improving.

Note, our definition ignores additional competitive forces that might reduce rents and increase quantities at other buildings and thus increase social welfare.

Appendix A demonstrates that for any positive, increasing, and convex cost functions $C_a^d(q)$ and $C_a^f(q)$, there exists a demand system for location a that results in local redevelopment failure. When costs are especially high, neither the social nor private benefits of redevelopment to $q_{a,1}^*$ outweigh the redevelopment costs. Conversely, if demand is especially high or redevelopment costs are especially low, then redevelopment can be both socially and privately optimal. However, the reduction in rents from moving from $q_{a,0}^*$ acts as an additional friction that may prevent landlord-developers from pursuing redevelopment in certain intermediate cases. For example, if a neighborhood is more in demand than when the building was originally constructed, then the planner may want to see redevelopment, as the total social benefits outweigh the redevelopment costs, but landlord-developer profit is maximized by renting the building *as-is*.

Notably, this discrepancy between socially optimal and privately optimal decisions

only occurs with finitely elastic (i.e., downward sloping) building-level demand.¹⁸ That is, the landlord and developer's decisions can only be distortionary to the extent to which a building's residual demand curve is downward sloping. Figure A.1 gives a visual example of this intuition.

Markups and quantity restrictions Depending on demand, the landlord-developer sets quantities at one of three levels. First, if demand is low enough relative to $q_{a,0}$, the landlord-developer chooses not to redevelop and further restricts quantities by holding units back from the market. In this case, they set q_a such that $\frac{\partial R_a}{\partial q_a}(q_a) \cdot q_a + R_a(q_a) = c_a^f(q_a)$. Here, the equilibrium rent is marked-up over the marginal cost of leasing, and can be calculated according to the Lerner rule: $1/\varepsilon_a$. Second, in the case where demand is high enough relative to $q_{a,0}$ to merit redevelopment, landlord-developers set $q_{a,1}$ such that $\frac{\partial R_a}{\partial q_a}(q_a) \cdot q_a + R_a(q_a) = c_a^f(q_a) + c_a^d(q_a)$. Here, the equilibrium rent is marked-up over the composite marginal cost of leasing *and* redevelopment, and can be calculated according to the Lerner rule. Finally, if demand is high enough such that the profit maximizing quantity equals the initial building size, $q_a^* = q_{a,0}$, then redevelopment is suboptimal for the landlord-developer but no units will be held back, and so the rent will be set given the inverse demand function, $R_a(q_{a,0})$. At this corner, the Lerner rule as a measure of markups does not apply.

Are buildings in New York really too small? The first of the above three margins, also the classic margin on which monopolies operate to restrict supply, implies that buildings are redeveloped below an efficient size. However, in New York, the majority of new construction is constrained by zoning limits. If, as in our model, these limits are taken to be hard caps, it is quite likely that they bind before the monopoly-optimal quantity. In this case, it would be inappropriate to expect this margin to be operational in our setting. Rather, the appropriate interpretation of this margin is in the context of a counterfactual: were all zoning limits to be removed, the city would not rebuild to an efficient quantity.

Two additional interpretations of this margin would arise out of a slightly less parsimonious model. First, if zoning restrictions were to be considered not as a hard limit but as a quantity above which permission to build must be negotiated, they might instead be more precisely modeled as a kink or jump in the marginal cost curve. In this instance, the

¹⁸We note that while social planners may also want to change the quantity set by the monopolist conditional on redevelopment (i.e., set $q_{a,1} > q_{a,1}^*$), we define redevelopment failure as the decision to redevelop or not, taking $q_{a,1}^*$ as given. As such, redevelopment failure never applies to buildings where the monopoly-optimal quantity is below the size of the existing structure. For these buildings, even if redevelopment did occur, developers would set $q_{a,1}^* < q_{a,0}$. For a greater theoretical discussion, see the above cited literature on rent control.

interpretation of the monopolist's restriction on quantities would become that developers exert too little effort attempting to relax zoning restrictions. Second, if zoning were modeled as a FAR restriction instead of a quantity restriction and developers were to choose both unit size and number of units within the allowable FAR, then the monopolist's quantity restriction in the presence of a FAR restriction would become a size-quantity trade-off. The interpretation of this margin would be that monopolist developers choose too few and too large units rather than an efficient higher quantity of smaller units.

2.2.2 Separate Landlord and Developer Problems

To solve the disjoint problem, we begin with the landlord's optimal pricing and supply strategy and work backwards to the redevelopment problem. If the developer can anticipate the landlord's problem, then the approaches are equivalent as the competitive fringe of landlords bid the sale price of the building up to the optimal monopolistic profit amount.

Once a building is sold, a landlord's maximum supply is bounded by $q_{a,1}$. The landlord rents on the demand curve at or below the quantity $q_{a,1}$ to maximize monopoly profits where marginal leasing revenue equals marginal leasing costs. Because potential landlords bid competitively on each plot, the sale price of such a plot becomes

$$s_a(q_{a,1}) = R_a(q_{a,f}^*) \cdot q_{a,f}^* - C_a^f(q_{a,f}^*) \quad \text{s.t.} \quad q_{a,f}^* \leq q_{a,1}. \quad (9)$$

Substituting the expression for $s_a(q_{a,1})$ into the landlord's profit condition (eq. 2), it becomes clear that the profit maximizing choice of $q_{a,1}$ in this case is the same as in the joint landlord-developer decision. Although the landlord makes a separate decision, units above the optimal quantity to rent do not increase the sale price of the building. If the joint decision-maker were to choose not to redevelop, then the landlord would choose a quantity $q_{a,f}^* \leq q_{a,0}$, and the developer would see no benefit from redevelopment. Were the joint decision-maker to redevelop, the chosen quantity q_a is exactly the point where the marginal increase in sale price equals the marginal increase in cost. In this case, the landlord always chooses the corner $q_{a,f}^* = q_{a,0}$.¹⁹ While the landlord appears to be choosing a quantity where marginal revenue is above marginal cost, the joint decision-maker case instructs us that the quantity is at the point where marginal revenue equals the combined marginal cost of both landlord and developer.

¹⁹Note of course that redevelopment $q_{a,f}^* < q_{a,1}$ would imply over-development.

We note that, importantly, the equivalence result for the joint landlord-developer problem and the separate sequential problems hinges on the existence of a competitive set of landlords. When a competitive fringe of landlords willing to purchase individual buildings is not extant, then there is scope for double-marginalization; i.e., pricing power both on the building buying and unit renting sides of the market. Exploring the theoretical and empirical effects of double-marginalization is beyond the scope of this paper. [Quintero \(2022\)](#) finds this may be an empirically relevant phenomenon in some markets.

2.3 Extensions: Monocentric City, Entry, Exit, and Risk

In Appendix [A.9](#), we discuss several extensions of our model, such as adapting a monocentric city model, introducing entry and exit, and risk. Our result of markups of rent over marginal cost survives as long as our model includes downward sloping residual demand and landlord exclusivity in renting out the units. Without entry, our model in this section serves as a reasonable medium-run model of a built urban environment with use laws.²⁰ The appendix details how entry and exit from other real estate markets (e.g., condominium or commercial markets) would generate a cross-market profit equalization condition but still feature markups. This holds when we allow free entry overall and when we adapt a monocentric city framework, where entry on a particular margin, the city's fringe, pins down the landlord-developer profit gradient. This latter model also makes clear how pricing power acts as a dispersing force reducing the supply of housing, flattening and widening the city. The appendix also discusses how risk enters this model.

2.4 Summary Discussion

The price-setting power of landlords and developers affects supply in three ways. First, in cases where demand is low, landlords withhold units from the market. [Vogell \(2022\)](#) documents this behavior, which is also isomorphic to setting rent at a high enough level such that landlords endure nonzero vacancy spells when lower rents would find renters sooner. Second, redevelopment may occur in fewer cases than would be the case if redevelopment decisions were made on a socially optimal basis. Third, when buildings are redeveloped, developers reduce quantities relative to an efficient benchmark in order to maximize the combined profits of redevelopment and leasing.

Developers build to the size at which marginal increase in sale value meets marginal

²⁰In NYC, for example, fewer than 100 buildings apply for condo conversions each year.

costs, and landlords rent out the full building at market rates, while making no profits. However, the joint problem demonstrates how this behavior is equivalent to a reduction in quantity relative to an efficient baseline. While in any given period of time, few buildings are redeveloped, the model instructs that at the time of construction, those buildings were constructed in a manner which restricted supply relative to the contemporary demand.

An implication of these findings is that the Lerner Rule only maps demand elasticities to markups in cases where redevelopment has recently occurred and buildings are not at the zoning limit, or where units are withheld from the market. In the former case, markups are over the combined marginal cost of development and leasing, while in the latter case markups are only over the cost of leasing. This informs the set of buildings on which we calculate markups in Section 6.

3 Policy Implications

We assess the effects of several policies in the context of markups. We first discuss redevelopment subsidies, and, second, examine the impact of zoning in the presence of markups.²¹

3.1 Redevelopment Subsidies

Subsidies for redevelopment exist at the federal, state, and local levels. At the federal level, the Low-Income Housing Tax Credit gives a tax credit for the construction or rehabilitation of low-income housing and has been given for over 36,000 buildings, accounting for nearly 2.5 million housing units ([HUD, 2021](#)). Opportunity Zones subsidize construction and investment in targeted areas. While there is no central accounting of the number or size of subsidies given by state or local governments for redevelopment projects—and noting that our understanding of the scope of the latter being especially poor—*ad hoc* tabulations indicate instances of state and local redevelopment subsidies number in the hundreds of thousands (Data provided by [Good Jobs First, 2022](#)).

Such policies are typically analyzed as place-based policies ([Glaeser and Gottlieb, 2008](#)) and rationalized under an equity-efficiency trade-off, or because developers do not internalize the general equilibrium effects of redevelopment. However, the presence of landlord pricing power and resulting redevelopment failure creates a partial-equilibrium effi-

²¹We consider the effects of redevelopment subsidies, but we ignore distortions that finance these policies, which are beyond the scope of this paper.

ciency argument for such subsidies: because developers do not internalize the local social surplus generated by increased supply, they may opt not to redevelop buildings even when the social surplus exceeds the relevant fixed cost of redevelopment. This arises due to the combined effects of reconstruction costs and downward sloping location-specific demand.

A particularly relevant subsidy in our NYC context is the 421a program, which has been for many years the city government's largest expenditure program ([New York City Independent Budget Office, 2022](#)). Of note, these subsidies, like many of those mentioned above, are linked to promises to provide below-market rents.²² Our analysis points to an interesting possibility that, while equity or general equilibrium pecuniary and non-pecuniary spillovers may be part of the impetus for these subsidies and their sub-market rent constraints, operationally, rent restrictions may improve subsidy efficiency in low-information environments.

We first discuss an optimal policy, and then move to describing an implementable welfare-improving policy.

Optimal Local Redevelopment Subsidy Eliminating local redevelopment failure can be achieved by aligning the developer's profit function with the local social surplus through subsidizing redevelopment to any quantity $q_{a,1}$ by the change in local renter surplus:

$$S_a^{\text{Opt}} = [r_{a,0} - r_{a,1}] \cdot q_{a,0} + \int_{q_{a,0}}^{q_{a,1}} (R_a(q) - r_{a,1})dq. \quad (10)$$

This subsidy achieves the same redevelopment outcome as if the landlord could charge each renter their willingness-to-pay (i.e., perfect price discrimination), which achieves allocative efficiency. Although tenants still pay the posted rent, $r_{a,1}$, the optimal subsidy transfers to the landlord the aggregate difference between willingness-to-pay and the rent for each unit. Thus, the landlord's objective becomes identical to that of a social planner choosing the efficient quantity.

Because the planner only cares about total social surplus, the planner accepts 'spending' the entire renter surplus on the landlord if it achieves allocative efficiency. It is unrealistic to believe agents have the information required to implement this subsidy, especially the distribution of willingness-to-pay for individual parcels in the city.²³

²²See Inclusionary zoning ([Baum-Snow and Marion, 2009](#); [Soltas, 2022](#)) and ([Thaden and Wang, 2017](#)).

²³This optimal subsidy definition assumes all other building rents and quantities remain fixed, and so does *not* account for competition induced benefits, which would require the planner to know additional unobservable information.

We note here that our notion of social surplus is tailored to our problem of considering the elimination of monopoly distortion. In particular, we do not model tax distortions necessary to fund the policy, which could be justified assuming the city planner can implement lump sum taxes or subsidies or has a fixed budget of tax revenue already collected of which the planner’s decision is only how to spend the revenue. In reality, all policies have opportunity costs, even when they are efficiency-enhancing, and usually housing development programs are implemented through tax expenditures rather than general fund revenues. It is possible that the efficiency gains from such a subsidy would make it cheap. It is also possible this policy might be a particularly expensive way of generating small efficiency gains. In general, the welfare effects of policies and their return on investments are not the same (Allen and Arkolakis, 2022). A dollar-per-unit cost accounting in a particular empirical setting, such as in Gupta, Martinez, and Van Nieuwerburgh (2023), is outside the scope of this paper.

Implementable Policies Instead, we consider subsidies targeted at local redevelopment failure that use only information attainable by policymakers. Proposition 1 defines a specific subsidy and rent discount that—when combined—reduce (but do not eliminate) local redevelopment failures and are local social welfare-improving, without using any unobservable information.

Policy 1. Provide a redevelopment subsidy $S_a = C^d(q_{a,0})$ to developer-landlords; i.e., set the subsidy at the reconstruction cost to the building *as-is*.

The intuition for this subsidy is that local redevelopment failure occurs because of the combination of rents on existing structures and positive redevelopment costs effectively operate as fixed costs, while downward sloping demand means developers do not capture the full social surplus of their redevelopment decisions, even locally. Without existing rents (e.g., when no structure exists *ex ante*), the monopolist always chooses $q_{a,1}^*$. Such a subsidy will always lead to profitable redevelopment. Crucially, these rebuilding costs are already calculated and readily available on a building basis via insurance.

We show in Appendix A that implementing Policy 1 would eliminate local redevelopment failures. However, offering a no-strings-attached subsidy would lead to over utilization such that some redevelopment is local social welfare *dis*-improving (i.e., negative local social welfare change), which we call socially wasteful redevelopment. The city planner cannot *ex ante* tell these cases apart from welfare-improving redevelopments. Thus, we consider a second policy to work in tandem with the first.

Policy 2. Require that any developer-landlord accepting a subsidy must set an average rent, $r_{a,S}$, to satisfy the following rule: $S_a \leq [r_{a,0} - r_{a,S}] \cdot q_{a,0}$.

Policy 2 puts an upper bound on the new rent: $r_{a,S} \leq r_{a,0} - S_a/q_{a,0}$, and ensures that the local social surplus gain is substantial enough so that subsidies are only taken when socially desirable by future residents. Intuitively, the rule comes from the first term in equation 10, so that the maximal subsidy that is offered is bounded by the local renter surplus. However, because of this bounding, we cannot ensure all local redevelopment failure is eliminated.

Proposition 1. Policies 1 and 2 jointly are implementable, reduce local redevelopment failure, and are locally social welfare-improving.

The proposition has three consequents. The first is that the policies only require three—observable—market quantities: $\{q_{a,0}, r_{a,0}, C^d(q_{a,0})\}$. The second is that the policies reduce (but do not eliminate) local redevelopment failure. The third is that the policy induced redevelopment generates local social surplus that is greater than the subsidy *and* greater under the policies than the *laissez-faire* outcome. Appendix A proves the claim.

We highlight three points. First, similar to existing policies, Proposition 1 hints at an efficiency argument for pairing redevelopment subsidies with rent reductions. Second, as opposed to existing policies, Proposition 1 prescribes a precise size for both the subsidy and rent reductions with existing information: *ex ante* rents, units, and rebuilding costs (observable on insurance records). Third, because the subsidy is based on rebuilding costs of existing structures, our framework does not yield development subsidies for empty lots.²⁴

3.2 New Implications for Zoning

An immediate implication of the above model is that, even in the absence of spillovers, a policy of no zoning is not first-best. Because a monopolist landlord restricts quantity, the quantity difference between a zoning-restricted and an identical, unrestricted parcel with a monopolist landlord is less than the difference between zoning-restricted parcels and a

²⁴We reiterate that both the optimal and implementable policies discussed here pertain to aligning incentives regarding the decision to redevelop, but take the quantity provided by the monopolist conditional on redevelopment, $q_{a,1}^*$ as given. We do not consider policies attempting to set $q_{a,1} > q_{a,1}^*$ such that $P = MC$. Recall that redevelopment failure does not apply to buildings where $q_{a,0} > q_{a,0}^*$, and this policy does not impact those buildings. Importantly, Policy 2 disincentivizes these landlords from requesting the subsidy.

competitively priced parcel. Height *minimums* could reduce rents. Appendix A.9 further explores this point in the context of a monocentric city.

On the other hand, to the extent that zoning limits bind at a particular parcel, the zoned quantity is lower than the monopoly-optimal quantity, and rents must be higher than what they would be otherwise. However, in a city where only some parcels are limited by zoning rules, those policy restrictions also impact rents at unzoned parcels by affecting equilibrium pricing power at unconstrained parcels. Intuitively, zoning induced scarcity at one building increases the pricing power at an unzoned rival building. This leads to the following statement:

Proposition 2. *Introducing binding zoning limits on a given parcel increases the markups and rent at all other parcels, including unzoned parcels and parcels where zoning limits do not bind.*

Appendix A presents a proof. Because of pricing power, binding zoning rules that increase rents have spillover effects that increase rents at unconstrained locations. Likewise, relaxing zoning at one parcel brings down rents elsewhere.²⁵

Finally, while our model assumes one owner per plot, Appendix A also shows that when this assumption is relaxed, increased concentration via merging ownership of two buildings should increase markups everywhere. Intuitively, an owner of multiple buildings internalizes the cross-price elasticities between those buildings. When a landlord adds a property to a portfolio, she raises rents at all her buildings. And, again because of cross-price elasticities between other buildings, this induces landlords at other buildings to respond by raising rents as well. In Section 5, we will test these predictions.

4 Data

Sources Our main data are derived from public administrative building-level records and scraped data from the New York City departments of City Planning, Finance, and Housing Preservation & Development. We combine the Primary Land Use Tax Lot Output (PLUTO) and the Final Assessment Roll (FAR) for all buildings in NYC. The PLUTO and FAR provide location, zoning, market value, and other building characteristics. We combine the Registration Contacts and the Multiple Dwelling Registration and merge them

²⁵Of course, even when units are priced competitively, if marginal costs are increasing, by limiting supply at one location, zoning can impact rents and quantities at other locations. But Proposition 2 points out that pricing power exacerbates the zoning induced rent increases by increasing optimal markups. In other words, even in a world of constant marginal costs, zoning at one parcel would raise rents at all other parcels in the city by increasing monopoly markups.

with PLUTO to identify ownership connections between buildings within Neighborhood Tabulation Areas.²⁶

We merge these public data with information derived from communications between the DOF and building owners, scraped off the Property Tax Public Access web portal, which we call the Notice of Property Value (NPV) dataset. It includes information mailed to building owners including gross revenue and cost estimates and the number of rent stabilized units. We use the American Community Survey to allocate rental households to buildings to estimate building vacancies.²⁷

Sample Our data spans from 2007 to 2019, where we are able to link all datasets together. We use all private buildings classified as multi-family rental buildings in the Bronx, Brooklyn, Manhattan, and Queens with four or more units, where all units are residential units and there is no missing data.²⁸ Based on Section 2.2, we create an unconstrained subsample that excludes buildings older than 10 years, rent stabilized buildings, and buildings at the zoning limit.²⁹ Table 1 presents summary statistics for NYC rental buildings in our two samples.

Building Rental Income We use scraped data from communications between the city and landlords about building income. In NYC, rental buildings are assessed based on their income generation. The DOF collects annual revenue and cost information for all rental buildings as the basis of a building’s tax assessment. Every year, the DOF sends a letter to building owners for each building that includes this information, which we parse for our dataset.³⁰ We divide building income by the number of units and again by twelve for average monthly rent. A limitation of our data is that we do not observe unit-level income.

Other Variables We link buildings using their unique, parcel-specific “borough-block-lot” (BBL) identification codes, with additional verification based on lot characteristics.

²⁶Appendix B gives details on our ownership matching procedure, and tables A.1 and A.2 display matching rates for our string matching procedure.

²⁷We multiply building residential units by the block-group level rental occupancy rate. This assumes vacancy rates are uniform within Census block-groups.

²⁸We use these and ‘New York City’ interchangeably; we omit Staten Island due to its low number of large rental buildings.

²⁹We deem a building to be rent stabilized if more than 50% of units are rent stabilized, and at the zoning limit if it would not be allowed an additional unit based on FARs and density requirements.

³⁰Letters inform owners how income and cost information is used to calculate tax liability.

The building-level characteristics that we include are ten-year building age group indicators, log miles to nearest subway station, log years since the last major building renovation, log average unit square-feet, whether the building has an elevator, and lot size quartiles. For location controls, we use different fixed effects depending on the analysis. In our concentration analysis, we use year fixed effects and then compare NTA, Tract, and BBL fixed effects across specifications. We drop six NTA designations: BK99, BX99, MN50, MN99, QN98, and QN99. The five NTAs ending in –98 and –99 are airports, cemeteries, and parks with relatively little to no residents, so that the number of buildings in our sample is very small in each of these. NTA MN50, Stuyvesant Town, has many structures but is unique in that it is a planned community where all 110 buildings are owned by a single landlord.

In our demand analysis, all specifications use Census tract by year fixed effects to account for sub-neighborhood time-varying location effects.

Table 1: Summary Statistics:
2007-2019 NYC Rental Buildings

	Building Level	
	Residential Sample (1)	Unconstrained, New Sample (2)
Median Rent	\$ 1056.78	\$ 1184.22
Median Rent by Median Income	0.18	0.23
Median Expenses per Unit	\$507.13	\$483.08
Median Market Value per Sqft	\$134.51	\$122.17
Residential Units	16.3	14.1
Years Since Construction	88.5	5.0
Years Since Renovation	69.8	5.0
Avg Unit Sqft	819.6	924.1
Pct w/ Elevator	11%	18%
Miles to Subway	0.3	0.3
Currently Zoning Constrained	64%	0%
Initially Zoning Constrained	77%	12%
Pct Units Rent Stabilized	39%	0%
Pct Built in Last 10 Years	2%	100%
Unique Buildings	57,641	214

Note: The table reports summary statistics for all single-use residential buildings with four or more units and sub-samples. The first column contains all residential, single-use buildings. The second column subsets the data to only include buildings that are less than ten years old, where less than 50% of units are rent stabilized, and that are able to add an additional unit according to zoning regulations, building floor-area-ratios, and minimum unit area requirements. Building data from PLUTO, NPV, and FAR. Monthly rent is building income divided by residential units divided by 12. Median borough income from ACS. All dollar values in nominal terms. Years since construction / renovation equal the year minus the construction year / most recent major renovation year. Avg Unit Sqft is total building area divided by units. Geodesic distances are in log miles based on building coordinates.

5 Zoning, Concentration, and Redevelopment in NYC

To examine whether the data are consistent with the predictions of our framework, we calculate the NTA share of zoning constrained buildings and construct a building-level “leave-one-out” HHI based on NTA ownership shares, and then regress log average building rents on these measures, plus controls. Defining neighborhoods is a persistent empirical challenge (Ziff, 2025). In NYC, NTAs correspond closely to other measures of neighborhood units such as those based on migration patterns (Mast, 2025). When we instrument for the severity of zoning constraints using upzonings, we find no clear evidence that zoning constraints lead to increased rents. However, in line with our extended framework discussed in Appendix A, we find increased concentration *around* a building is correlated with modest rent increases. We note these results are not causally identified.

Zoning Constraints, Shares, and HHI Construction We start by measuring the proportion of each NTA that is zoning constrained. Zoning constrained lots are lots where a unit of minimum size could not be added to existing structures without violating FAR or density limits. We calculate the unit-weighted probability that a parcel in each NTA m is zoning constrained at time t as $ZC_{m,t}$.

Next, using our recovered ownership structure, we calculate owners’ market share:

$$s_{m,t}^f := \frac{\left(\sum_{j \in \mathcal{A}_{f,m,t}} D_{j,t} \right)}{\sum_{f' \in F_{m,t}} \left(\sum_{k \in \mathcal{A}_{f',m,t}} D_{k,t} \right)}, \quad (11)$$

where D_{jt} are building units, $\mathcal{A}_{f,m,t}$ is the set of buildings j owned by landlord f in NTA m in year t , and $F_{m,t}$ is the set of landlords in that NTA and time. Figure 2 plots NTA-level HHI measures for NYC, where HHI is the sum of squared owners’ shares, $\text{HHI}_{m,t} := \sum_{f' \in F_{m,t}} \left(s_{m,t}^{f'} \right)^2$.

To construct our “leave-one-out” HHI, we calculate for each landlord f the surrounding concentration as the sum of rival hs ’ market shares:

$$\text{HHI}_{f(j),m,t} := \sum_{h \in F_{m,t}^{\neg f}} \left(\tilde{s}_{f,m,t}^h \right)^2 := \sum_{h \in F_{m,t}^{\neg f}} \left(\frac{\left(\sum_{j \in \mathcal{A}_{h,m,t}} D_j \right)}{\sum_{f' \in F_{m,t}^{\neg f}} \left(\sum_{j \in \mathcal{A}_{f',m,t}} D_j \right)} \right)^2, \quad (12)$$

where $F_{m,t}^{\neg f}$ is the set of rivals to landlord f .³¹

Figure 1 displays a map of rents, HHI, and zoning constraints in NYC NTAs in 2011. Overall, there is substantial variation in concentration levels across NTAs. While our specification is identified using NTA-level changes rather than cross-sectional variation, it may be instructive to note where differences in HHI emerge in the cross-section. NTAs in Manhattan, with some exceptions, are fairly low concentration, while pockets of high concentration exist in areas across outer boroughs, especially lower-density areas. Oakland Gardens in Queens, for example, has particularly high concentration not due to a small housing stock, but because of concentration among a small number of multi-family buildings in a predominantly single-family home NTA. However, other less extreme cross-sectional differences arise from differences in both ownership patterns and in the number of multi-family properties in the rental market. Appendix Table A4 shows our results are robust to dropping NTAs with few buildings. We reiterate that we do not use this cross-sectional variation for identification. Appendix Figure A.2 maps the changes in NTA HHI over time.

Zoning constraints are largely binding across much of the city, although NTAs that, by our measure, have a substantial share of unconstrained lots exist in Manhattan as well as denser areas of Queens and Brooklyn.

Empirical Specifications We first test the relationship between zoning constraints and rents using the specification

$$\ln[r_{j,m,t}] = \gamma_0 + \gamma_1 \cdot \ln[ZC_{m,t}] + \gamma_2 \cdot X_{j,m,t} + u_{j,m,t}, \quad (13)$$

where $X_{j,m,t}$ are control variables described below, and u is an econometric error term.³²

In a second set of specifications, we test whether rent increases with concentration using:

$$\ln[r_{j,m,t}] = \gamma_0 + \gamma_1 \cdot \ln[HHI_{f(j),m,t}] + \gamma_2 \cdot X_{j,m,t} + u_{j,m,t}, \quad (14)$$

where $r_{j,m,t}$ is the average unit rent of building j in NTA m at time t .

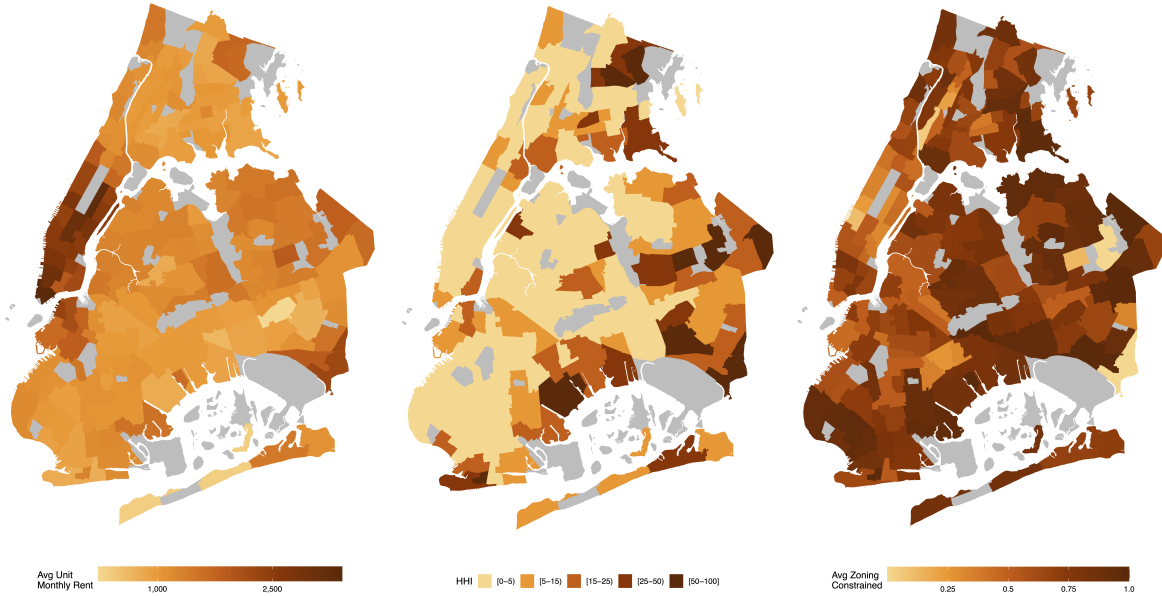
We also include $\ln[s_{m,t}^{f(j)}]$ in some specifications to test for the impact of owners' shares on rents at their own buildings.

We note that in the above specifications, variation happens at the neighborhood level, and all versions of our specification include neighborhood or sub-neighborhood fixed

³¹In Appendix B, we use the more standard construction of HHI and shares in Equation (11).

³²While we use general subscripts $\{j, m, t\}$ for $X_{j,m,t}$, in specific specifications some controls will be time invariant; e.g., when using building fixed effects.

Figure 1: Distribution of 2011 New York City Rents, Concentration, & Zoning



Note: The figure displays the geographic distribution of monthly rent and ownership concentration (measured by HHI) for 2011 NTAs, excluding Staten Island. The left plot is the 2011 NTA-level average building monthly rent, expressed in 2019 dollars. The center plot is the 2011 average NTA HHI value; note, according to the US Federal Trade Commission, HHI values between 0.15-0.25 are ‘moderately concentrated’ and above 0.25 are ‘highly concentrated.’ The right plot is the 2011 share of buildings that are zoning constrained, which we measure as the inability to add an additional average sized unit given other units. Missing values (in gray) are NTAs that are excluded from our sample for being either non-residential areas (e.g., parks, cemeteries, or airports) or having too few different owners (Stuyvesant Town). Data from PLUTO, FAR, NPV, and MDRC described above.

effects, such that the identifying variation is always based on changes over time in the neighborhood-level variable. For example, cross-NTA variation in HHI does not impact our coefficient, only mergers and de-mergers between landlords (and to a much lesser extent, entry and exit)³³ across years.

An important issue here is measurement error. The matching process used to construct HHI is inherently prone to false positives and negatives. As such, HHI is likely measured noisily. It is important to keep in mind that this mismeasurement will attenuate our results.

Using the model-consistent, leave-one-out HHI has some conceptual advantages over simply using HHI, although we caution it is still an endogenous object. Specifically, as we are looking at the effects of other owners’ decision to merge on rents at a given building, we can hold constant that building’s decisions. On the one hand, this removes the direct effect of the building’s endogenous merger decisions. However, unobservable changes which lead to higher local concentration and higher rents still contaminate our results.

³³Again, Stuyvesant Town-Cooper Village (NTA MN50) is dropped because the planned multi-building community has only one legal owner, and thus an HHI of one without variation.

For example, increasing neighborhood quality could lead to mergers as well as increased rents.

Results Table 2 presents our estimates. Panel A presents our results for zoning constraints. All columns use year fixed effects and time-varying building controls. Columns 1-3 use NTA, then tract, then building fixed effects, respectively. The coefficient on the share of NTA buildings that are zoning constrained is relatively stable and positive but declines across the columns. Placing an additional 1% of competing buildings in the neighborhood under zoning constraints is correlated with rents that are roughly 0.4% higher, which is substantial. This is true even controlling for sub-market (tract-level) time-invariant location effects, and true even when controlling for building fixed effects. While this correlation is consistent with our model (and others), it is potentially, and even likely to be a product of time-varying location effects: omitted positive changes in neighborhood quality spur construction and increased rents.

To attempt to remedy this unobservable confounding, we instrument in columns 4-6 using observed upzoning. If neighborhood quality changes do not cause upzoning, then upzonings reduce zoning constraints in a manner orthogonal to endogenous, unobserved neighborhood improvement. If policy is affected by neighborhood quality changes, or affects such changes, the exclusion restriction here is violated. While we find it plausible that policy might respond to neighborhood changes, because upzonings only relax zoning constraints, positive contamination would imply that policy targets dis-improving neighborhoods to upzone or that upzoning directly reduces neighborhood quality. Interestingly, our positive first stage and reduced-form seem to contradict that hypothesis. Appendix Figure A.3 evaluates the reduced-form of these specifications broken up by building age. Younger buildings are likely the closest substitutes for new construction, and in fact we see that upzoning meaningfully decreases rents on buildings under 20 years old.

Our first stage is quite strong, with KP F-stats above 160. The results of the two-stage least-squares estimates are consistent with our instrument reducing the effects of endogenous neighborhood quality changes, reducing the coefficient by more than half, consistent with the hypothesis that the strongly positive OLS result is at least partially a result of endogenous construction. There is no longer a significant relationship between rents and neighborhood zoning constraints. We cannot rule out small positive spillovers consistent with the model but undetectable in our setting, despite our instrument's relative strength. This may be the case if the effect size is very small. In addition, although we have a large

Table 2: Market Conditions and Rent

Panel A: Zoning Constraints and Rent						
	(1)	OLS (2)	(3)	(4)	2SLS (5)	(6)
NTA Share Zoning Constrained	0.48 (0.18)	0.46 (0.18)	0.41 (0.17)	0.20 (0.29)	0.18 (0.29)	0.15 (0.26)
First Stage Coef				-0.84 (0.07)	-0.84 (0.07)	-0.84 (0.07)
KP F Stat				160	161	169
Time-varying controls	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
NTA FEs	Y	N	N	Y	N	N
Tract FEs	N	Y	N	N	Y	N
Building FEs	N	N	Y	N	N	Y
Observations	540,618	540,610	539,351	540,618	540,610	539,351
Panel B: Ownership Concentration and Rent						
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Log Leave-One-Out NTA HHI	0.04 (0.02)	0.04 (0.02)	0.04 (0.02)	0.05 (0.02)	0.05 (0.02)	0.04 (0.02)
Log Owner Share in NTA				0.01 (0.00)	0.01 (0.00)	0.00 (0.00)
Time-varying controls	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
NTA FEs	Y	N	N	Y	N	N
Tract FEs	N	Y	N	N	Y	N
Building FEs	N	N	Y	N	N	Y
Observations	540,606	540,598	539,339	540,606	540,598	539,339

Note: The table reports the results from multiple sets of regressions. Panel A reports regressions of log average building rent on the share of buildings that are zoning constrained in the NTA, where columns (1-3) are for OLS results and columns (4-6) are 2SLS results, using the ‘Bloomberg upzonings’ as a source of identification. Panel B reports regressions of log of building average unit monthly rent on the log of the ‘leave-one-out’ HHI, calculated at the building-level by leaving out the building owner’s units. Time-varying controls include log building age, log years since renovation, log average unit sqft, and an indicator for having an elevator. Regressions are at the building-year level using all single-use rental buildings in New York City, from 2007 to 2019. Standard errors are clustered at the NTA-level for all columns.

number of observations, the relevant variation is within-NTA, and there are relatively few NTAs in the city. With several hundred effective observations and a small effect size, we may need an even higher degree of power to observe such a general equilibrium effect.

Panel B describes our specifications on concentration and rents. Columns (1-3) use the log of the leave-one-out HHI measure and columns (4-6) add the log of the building owner’s market share as a control. All columns again use year fixed effects and time-varying building controls. As in Panel A, columns (1) and (4) include NTA fixed effects, and columns (2) and (5) introduce tract-level fixed effects, which again remove time-invariant location effects at the sub-neighborhood level. Columns (3) and (6), our most stringent specifications, include building-level fixed effects, which remove unobserved

time-invariant building characteristics. Across all columns, the coefficient is relatively stable: a 10% increase in competitors' concentration is associated with a 0.4-0.5% increase in rents across all buildings. The coefficient on own share of the NTA is inconclusive: positive in columns 4-5 but insignificant once building fixed effects are added. Nevertheless, the effect of local concentration on rents is extremely consistent even when controlling for the endogenous concentration decision of each landlord.

These results are robust to a number of alternative specifications. To ensure that these results were not driven by NTAs with volatile HHI values, Appendix C Table A4 shows that these HHI results are robust to dropping NTAs with less than 100 buildings in a given year. Table A5 demonstrates that these results are roughly 20% smaller when recalculating HHI to ignore the effects of new buildings and buildings with large-scale renovations, implying results are driven by both entry and merger margins of change in concentration.

Because market structure is endogenous and we are unable to observe changing market and building conditions that are correlated with both rents and ownership concentration, we caution against interpreting these coefficients causally, but instead we take reassurance from the concordance between our model's theoretical results on concentration (see Appendix A for discussion) and the stylized fact that increases in concentration around a building are correlated with increases in rents.³⁴ As we discuss above, controlling for building fixed effects, owners' own share, and looking only at the effects of surrounding concentration on rents still does not remove the specter of endogenous neighborhood improvement influencing both rent changes and decisions of other landlords to merge.

Redevelopment Subsidies in NYC A number of programs in NYC subsidize housing redevelopment. Most prominently, since 1973, the 421a program has exempted new construction from property tax during construction and for 35 years after in exchange for providing below-market rental stock. In 2022, constituting \$1.8 billion of foregone revenue, the 421a program was the City's single largest expenditure ([New York City Independent Budget Office, 2022](#)). In Appendix C.1, we explore the 421a program further. Table A3 shows that in our data, 421a buildings are rebuilt with more units and subsequently have lower rents; however, 421a buildings have relatively lower net income after uptake of the program, implying that the subsidy itself may be going towards at least some redevelopments that our policy would not subsidize.

³⁴Appendix C.2 displays additional Zoning and HHI results at the NTA-level, and Appendix C.6 Table A10 displays results using the larger Public Use Micro Areas instead of NTAs. Both sets of results show the robustness of the NTA based HHI results.

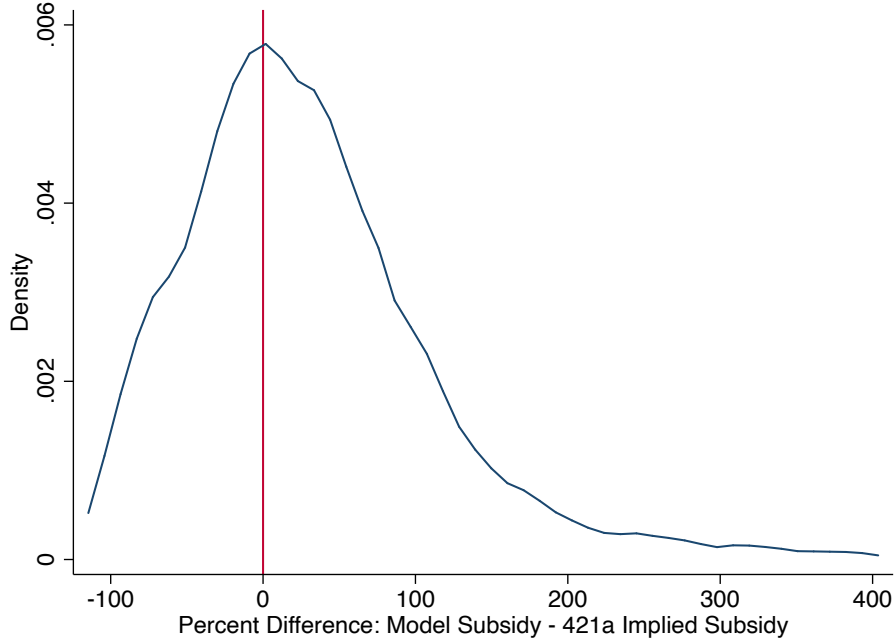
Indeed, we can directly compare subsidies proposed by our model to the value of the 421a subsidy. By using capitalization rates provided by the Department of Finance, we can examine the foregone income to the value of the 421a subsidy, and compare that to the value of the structure before the redevelopment, which is our policy’s implied subsidy. By comparing these two numbers, we can examine, according to our model and policy, whether 421a subsidies are “too large” or “too small” relative to model-based alternative subsidies. For nearly a third of buildings receiving the 421a subsidy, our model-based subsidy is 0. Recall that under our proposed policies, no subsidies are given to “greenfield” construction, where no housing or income-generating structure exists.

Figure 2 plots the distribution of the percentage differences between our model-implied subsidy and the size of the (empirical) 421a subsidy for the 1,275 buildings in our data receiving a 421a subsidy for which the model-implied subsidy is positive.³⁵ First, and perhaps most remarkably, a substantial number of model-based subsidies and 421a exemptions are of similar value, with a modal subsidy that is nearly the same. The model-based subsidy mean and median are both lower than the empirical 421a exemption values. For the population of 421a takers, model-based subsidies are on average lower. However, our model also offers substantially larger subsidies to a long tail of 421a takers. Indeed, because the counterfactual offers lower subsidies to many buildings and larger subsidies to others, the resulting set of takers for our model-based subsidies would be different. As such, it is difficult to compare our model-based subsidy’s true counterfactual population and cost to the population and cost of 421a takers. Although there may be substantial overlap between the two groups, the set of buildings that might have redeveloped given the larger model-based subsidy is unseen and unobservable.

Overall, the model-based subsidies offer us guidance in both directions. On the one hand, the model-based subsidies offer a critique of the 421a subsidies for offering subsidies on empty lots and for offering, on average, too-large subsidies over the population of 421a takers. On the other hand, the model implies additional gains could be made by targeting larger subsidies to larger existing structures.

³⁵For readability, we drop 39 observations with greater than a 400% difference between subsidy and model-implied values and 50 observations with positive but very small building values, which typically reflect extreme changes to structure values the year before 421a adoption.

Figure 2: 421a Subsidies vs Model-Implied Redevelopment Subsidies



Note: The figure displays a density plot of the percent difference between the calculated redevelopment subsidy, the pre-421a structure value (calculated as the market value minus the land value), and the capitalized value of the 421a subsidy, calculated as a building's taxable value multiplied by its tax rate and then valued as a lump sum either by dividing by the DOF-provided building-specific capitalization rate or multiplying by the DOF-provided building-specific gross income multiplier. The Epanechnikov kernel is used with a bandwidth of 14.92.

6 Quantification Exercise: Elasticities and Markups

Our final empirical exercise gauges the competitiveness of our setting by estimating the size of markups (Benassy, 1991). Without imposing assumptions on firm conduct, we estimate demand parameters from our model to generate building OPEs. Using results in Section 2, we isolate the set of buildings for which OPEs provide information on markups.³⁶

To identify the demand parameters, we use variation from three sources. As is common in the literature, we use rival characteristics to construct 'BLP instruments' (Bayer, Ferreira, and McMillan, 2007; Davis et al., 2021; Almagro and Dominguez-Iino, 2019; Almagro, Chyn, and Stuart, 2023). To allay endogeneity concerns, we re-estimate using two different cost-shifting instruments with separate sources of variation and identifying assumptions: the tax instrument and historic construction costs. Per our discussion in Sec-

³⁶Alternatively, we estimate a 'theory-free' OPE using a standard log-log 2SLS regression that is quantitatively similar to the mean values from our structural model (between $[-6.3, -2.7]$). However, we caution that this approach includes zoning-limited and older vintage buildings in a local average treatment effect for which the OPE is not informative for markups.

tion 2 and following Froeb, Tschantz, and Crooke (2003), we note that potential demand always equals realized demand, allowing us to proceed in spite of dis-economies of scale.

Empirical Specification Let (j, m, t) index building j in market m in year t . We set spatial markets as Neighborhood Tabulation Areas (NTA), as in the last section, and model each NTA-year as a distinct rental market. At the same time, we include tract-by-year fixed effects, absorbing sub-market location amenity differences.³⁷ Building market share and rent are denoted s and r , respectively. Individuals $i \in N_{mt}$ choose a unit at a building or the outside option.³⁸ Parameterizing our model further, renter indirect utility is linear in rent and amenities:

$$U_{ijmt} = \beta_0 + \beta_1 \cdot X_{jmt} + \alpha_{mt} \cdot r_{jmt} + \delta_{jmt} + \epsilon_{ijmt}, \quad (15)$$

where δ is a building characteristic that is observed by the market but not in our dataset, $\alpha_{mt} = \alpha / \bar{y}_{b(m),t}$ captures how rent affects utility and is parameterized as a single parameter divided by median borough income, X_{jmt} is a set of observable building characteristics including log distance to the nearest subway station, log average unit square feet, log years since a major renovation, and an indicator for whether a building has an elevator, and tract-year fixed effects, while ϵ is the individual level idiosyncratic taste shifter (distributed Type-1 Extreme Value). Aggregating individual demand and using the analytic inversion of Berry (1994), we arrive at our estimation equation:

$$\ln[s_{jmt}] - \ln[s_{0mt}] = \beta_0 + \beta_1 \cdot X_{jmt} + \alpha_{mt} \cdot r_{jmt} + \delta_{jmt}, \quad (16)$$

where s_{0mt} is the outside good share for the NTA (e.g., 1-3 unit buildings or rentals in condos). Given the threat of correlation between the rent and the unobserved building characteristic, we use an instrumental variable strategy.

Instruments We use three approaches to identify the demand parameters. First, we use the characteristics of rival buildings, commonly called ‘BLP instruments.’ The degree to which a landlord can mark up rent is attenuated when renters have more similar choices.

³⁷Because we use tract-year fixed effects and so identification comes from within tract differences in buildings, our results are robust to any alternative geography that is *larger than tracts*.

³⁸Unlike the model in Section 2, our outside option is parameterized to be all other rental choices in the NTA (e.g., 1-3 unit buildings, rentals in condos) instead of outside the city. An implicit assumption is that renters have already predetermined which NTA they wish to live. Our results are both qualitatively and quantitatively similar if we instead assume borough or citywide search rather than NTA.

We follow [Gandhi and Houde \(2018\)](#) calculating the sum of squared differences for continuous variables and a count of rivals for indicator variables. We reduce the resulting instruments to a single one following [Bayer, McMillan, and Rueben \(2004\)](#) and [Davis et al. \(2021\)](#).³⁹ We use the count of all rivals, rivals with elevators, and mixed-use rivals and the sum of square differences in age and distance to closest subway entrance.

The exclusion restriction holds if, controlling for characteristics, building unobservables are orthogonal to rivals' characteristics: $E[\delta_j | X_k] = 0 \forall j, k$. Conditional on a building's own characteristics, rivals' 'closeness' should only affect rent through competition. A concern is that neighborhood characteristics are correlated with rivals' amenities. Accordingly, we omit rivals from 1 km around each building from the instrument construction. Still, the possibility of long-lagged spatial auto-correlation poses an unknowable threat (as throughout this literature), and is the impetus for our second set of strategies.

Second, we construct rents using variation tied to landlord costs using plausibly exogenous idiosyncratic cost variation from assessment procedures, following [Watson and Ziv \(2025\)](#). Third, we use variation in costs at the time of buildings' construction. We match buildings by year of construction to cost indices for unskilled labor and materials cost and NYC real estate tax rates ([Barr, 2016](#)), using the three, net of linear cohort trends, as instruments for rent. While we place little weight on these results because such costs may be correlated with unobservables, we include this complementary specification because the direction of bias is unlikely to be the same as that of the other instruments.

Markup Calculations with Supply-Side Restrictions The logit demand elasticity (Equation 5) is $\varepsilon_{jmt} = \alpha_{mt} \cdot r_{jmt} \cdot (1 - s_{jmt})$. If landlords use a Bertrand price competition game to set rents, then the Lerner rule, $L_{jmt} = (-1/\varepsilon_{jmt})$, reveals the proportion of rent due to markups: $L = (r - c)/r$.

However, while our elasticity estimation is cost agnostic, to derive markups from demand elasticities, we must account for how landlords set rents and quantities in our setting. As discussed in Section 2.4, a major limitation of markup estimation in the presence of supply constraints is that markups can only be calculated from the OPEs of a subset of buildings where the capacity constraint was chosen and the policy constraint was non-binding, or where both capacity and policy constraints are nonbinding. Consequently, we conservatively restrict our sample to buildings built in the previous 10 years and those that are not at a zoning constraint. However, this dramatically reduces our sample, to 214

³⁹We regress rent on the BLP instruments alone and use the fitted value as an instrument for rent in the full estimation equation with controls.

buildings. While the demand estimation, and therefore our elasticity estimates, can be estimated without bias on the full sample, and we therefore use our full sample to estimate the demand parameters, we can only be fully sure that the Lerner index only applies to recover a markup on this restricted subsample.

What can be said about buildings that are policy or capacity constrained? The table shows these buildings' demand appear only modestly less elastic, which is perhaps consistent with having similar marginal costs but with binding constraints. It may also indicate that for a substantial portion of these buildings, capacity constraints don't effectively bind, and landlords price within their constraints in a manner as to trade higher rents for some probability of vacancy. In this case, it is correct to infer markups and also marginal cost levels from the Lerner Index. For the portion of buildings in this sample where landlords are "at a corner" where their first-order conditions do not bind strictly, the difference between marginal cost and markup is likely greater than what is implied by ε_{jmt} .

Aggregate Demand Consensus housing demand estimates are inelastic (Chen, Clapp, and Tirtiroglu, 2011; Albouy, Ehrlich, and Liu, 2016). These estimates measure the change in total housing demand with a change in rent, rather than the OPEs we target, ε_j . Connecting these previous estimates to ours, we calculate the responsiveness of renters to a 1% increase in rent for all buildings, which we refer to as the "aggregate rent elasticity" (Berry and Jia, 2010; Conlon and Gortmaker, 2019):

$$\varepsilon_{mt}^{\text{Agg}} = \sum_{j \in \mathcal{J}_{mt}} \frac{D_{jmt}(\{r_k + \Delta r_k\}_{k \in \mathcal{J}_{mt}}) - D_{jmt}}{\Delta} \Big|_{\Delta=1\%}. \quad (17)$$

Results Table 3 presents our main empirical results. Column (1) reports a positive, small OLS estimate of α , likely biased due to unobserved amenities. Moreover, at this point it is crucial to recall that our measure of rent is inherently noisy because it must be imputed from building income statements. This noise biases our results here due to measurement error, which, as with our measure of HHI, attenuates results.

Column (2) reports the 2SLS estimates using BLP instruments. Here, α is roughly -14 , which corresponds to a median markup on the unconstrained sample of roughly one-third. Our other two specifications, using our synthetic tax instrument (Column 3) and historic cost shifters (Column 4), vary in magnitude, estimating α as roughly -25 and -11 , and with a median markup on the relevant sample of 16% and 36%, respectively. One

reason for this could be differences in the sample.⁴⁰ We report first stage effective F statistics (Olea and Pflueger, 2013) and the Anderson-Rubin F statistic for rent. Our three IV specifications broadly agree that α is negative and reject extreme values implying no pricing power. Overall, were units rented at marginal costs reflective of building construction and maintenance, we would expect rents to be about 64-86% of their current levels.

Since monopoly pricing is inconsistent with inelastic demand, observing whether buildings in our sample face elastic demand is a useful check. Across all 2SLS specifications, virtually all buildings have elastic demand. BLP and Historic Costs specifications estimate *aggregate* elasticities to be -0.54 and -0.44 , respectively, within the consensus range of $(-0.7, -0.3)$, while results from the Tax IV are more elastic, -0.97 but still inelastic.⁴¹ Figure 3 plots the distribution of the own-price elasticities and markups for each specification.

Table 3: Demand Estimation Results

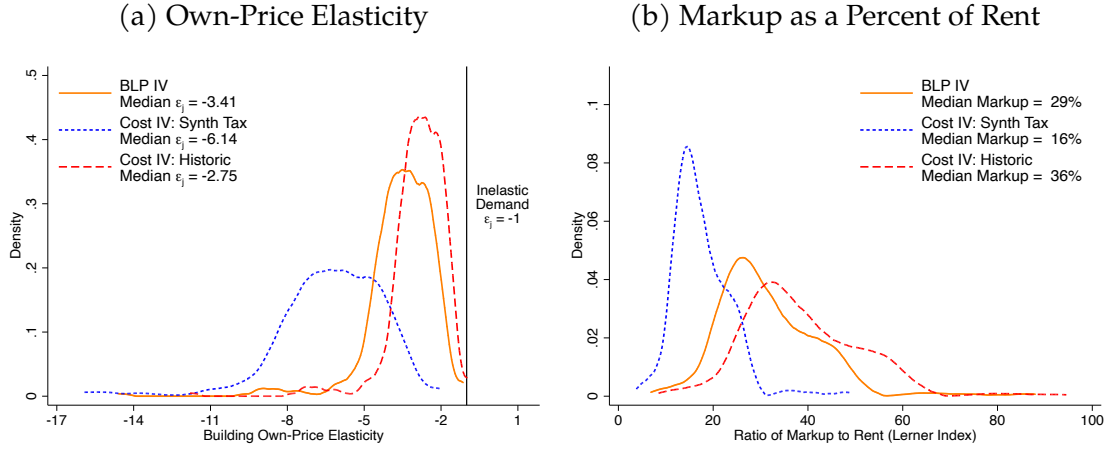
	OLS (1)	BLP (2)	Tax (3)	Historic Costs (4)
α	1.03 (0.18)	-14.20 (4.16)	-25.59 (4.12)	-11.48 (2.54)
Robust F Stat	-	38.77	58.11	23.75
Robust AR Stat for Rent	-	28.99	133.82	37.48
Observations	345,972	345,972	178,222	327,762
Med(ε_{jmt})	0.18	-2.50	-4.50	-2.02
Med(ε_{jmt} Unconst., New)	0.25	-3.41	-6.14	-2.75
Pct Elastic	0%	100%	100%	99%
Med(L_{jmt} Unconst., New)	0.00	0.29	0.16	0.36
Avg($\varepsilon_{mt}^{\text{Agg}}$)	0.04	-0.54	-0.97	-0.44

Note: The table displays parameter estimates from Logit demand models. The own-price elasticity is ε , the Lerner rule is $-1/\varepsilon$, and the aggregate price elasticity, ε^{Agg} , is based on Berry and Jia (2010). Buildings are ‘unconstrained’ if *not* rent stabilized and *not* zoning-constrained; buildings are considered new if less than 10 years old. We estimate an (1) OLS model and three just-identified IV models using (2) ‘BLP instruments’, (3) the synthetic tax instrument, and (4) historic cost instruments based on the year of building construction. All models include Census tract-year fixed effects, controls for log distance to nearest subway station, building age, years since renovation, average unit square-feet, and an indicator for having an elevator. Standard errors are clustered by NTA and the first stage F statistic and the Anderson-Rubin F statistic for the estimated coefficients are cluster robust as well.

⁴⁰The Tax IV requires observing buildings’ base-income in 2007. Imposing the same sample restriction on the BLP and Historic Costs specifications pushes both coefficients towards the Tax IV, albeit both of these restricted estimates become significantly noisier.

⁴¹We note Gyourko and Voith (2000) and Chen, Clapp, and Tirtiroglu (2011) each find elastic estimates.

Figure 3: Distribution of Results



Note: The figure plots the kernel density plot of own-price elasticities (Panel (a)) and markups / Lerner rule (Panel (b)) based on results from Table 3. The solid orange line uses the BLP IVs (column 2), the short-dash blue line uses the Cost IV using counterfactual tax per unit (column 3), and the long-dash red line uses the Cost IV using historic building costs (column 4). The sample is all single-use residential buildings in the four boroughs with four or more units, where unconstrained means all buildings that are not at the zoning limit and where less than 50% of units are rent stabilized and where new buildings are 10 years old or less. The vertical line in Panel (a) indicates elasticities greater than -1, which would be incompatible with monopolistic pricing; these elasticities are excluded from Panel (b). The models and estimation are described in the text.

In Table 4, we display comparisons between an empirical measure of the markup, the difference between monthly average unit costs from rent, versus the model-implied markups, calculated by multiplying the rent by the estimated Lerner index. We caution that there are key, subtle differences between the empirical and model-implied measures. Most importantly, the empirical measure is the average unit markup; whereas, the model-implied markup measures the marginal markup. To the extent to which infra-marginal costs vary, the marginal markup is more likely to be constant across buildings and the average will have higher variation across buildings than at the margin.

Panel A displays the means of the variables, Panel B displays the correlation coefficient, and Panel C displays regression output of the empirical measure regressed on the model-implied markup (with a building fixed effect). Because expense information is missing for roughly half the sample, we display each variable's full sample and a common sample for all four columns. We find that the four measures are all near each other at the mean. Empirical markups sit between the measures derived from our three instruments. Overall, the correlation coefficients between each of our model-derived measures and the empirical measure are all close to one-half, and the regression coefficient between the two is between two-thirds and three-halves.

In Appendix C, we present several sets of additional results. In Appendix Table A7, we replicate Panels B and C using percent markups. While there is still a positive asso-

ciation in the regressions, the correlation is lower, which we attribute to the distinction between average and marginal measures. Tables A8, A9, A11, and A12 present coefficient and market results using boroughs and PUMAs, respectively, which qualitatively match our main findings. Figure A.4 examines the correlation between estimated OPEs and location characteristics, and Table A6 displays correlates between building characteristics and estimated OPE. Figure A.5 displays spatial variation in our OPE estimates across NTAs.

Table 4: Monthly Rent Markups

	Empirical (1)	Tax (2)	BLP (3)	Historic Costs (4)
Panel A: Means				
Full	\$447	\$269	\$472	\$576
Common	\$455	\$278	\$489	\$599
Unconst., New	\$570	\$224	\$395	\$484
Panel B: Correlation Coefficient				
ρ	-	0.46	0.48	0.51
Panel C: Regression Comparison				
β	-	1.43	0.81	0.67
R^2	-	0.89	0.90	0.89
Within R^2	-	0.17	0.17	0.17

Note: The table compares the monthly rent markups using our empirical data in column (1) versus using the estimated parameters from Table 3. We calculate the model-implied markup multiplying $r \cdot (1/\text{abs}(\epsilon))$. In Panel A, we display the means of the variables for all available observations ('Full') and for a common sample ('Common'). In Panel B, we display correlation coefficient. In Panel C, we display selected regression output from regressing the empirical markup on the three model-implied markups with a building fixed effect. For both panels, we winsorize the data at the 1% level and use only data from 2011 and onward.

7 Conclusion

We reconsider the canonical competitive urban model, proposing the existence and quantifying the relevance of markups. We find markups are economically significant and policy relevant. Using plausibly exogenous variation stemming from NYC tax policy changes, we find evidence that multi-family landlords face downward sloping demand from renters. We estimate that markups account for between a sixth and a third of rents. We discuss a welfare-improving policy that is implementable without requiring any structural estimates and mirrors widespread inclusionary zoning policies, as well as a new spillover

from zoning regulations that operates through changes in markups.

These results revise canonical analyses of housing policies and housing markets. They point to markups as both a new source of housing supply constraints and a source of spillovers from supply to demand and between suppliers. More broadly, our analysis implies markups should be directly modeled in empirical work geared toward estimating housing supply curves, counterfactual reallocations, and estimates of the impact of restrictive housing policies.

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**Online Appendix of
Is the Rent Too High?
Land Ownership and Monopoly Power
C. Luke Watson and Oren Ziv**

A Theoretical Appendix

In this section, we provide proofs of and expanded analyses of our theoretical results.

A.1 Alternatives to Maggi (1996) Cost Function

A.1.1 Current Approach

In Maggi (1996), duopolists set capacity and prices and can service demand above capacity at a potentially arbitrarily high marginal cost. Benassy (1991) points out that these types of *diseconomies of scale* do not on their own prevent rationing. Our oligopolistic setting also differs from Maggi (1996) because of additional *diseconomies of scale* in capacity provision. However, the same logic outlined in Wauthy et al. (2014)—that Maggi’s equilibrium rests on an effective ban on rationing that forces competitors to service (hypothetical) demand even if it were unprofitable to do so—extends to our setting in a straightforward way. The threat of competitors’ unprofitable quantity provision at posted prices returns each player’s residual demand to that which would be the case if capacity constraints did not bind at any off-equilibrium price, and therefore the pricing subgame should have a pure strategy equilibrium. Indeed, Greenfield and Sandford (2018) use the same setup in a similar oligopoly with asymmetric costs.

The palatability of these assumptions for our setting is mixed. Lessors do face short-run constraints. However, the division between the long and short run is not as rigid as is expressed in our model via timing assumptions on the capacity and pricing stages. Zoning constraints also could be viewed either as a rigid constraint that binds for developers or a *diseconomy of scale* imposed by policy, which can (and often is) relaxed through payments in time, effort, and side payments.

A.1.2 Alternative Approaches

The pursuit of a pure-strategy equilibrium solution for differentiated goods markets with capacity constraints has been elusive. Yin and Ng (1997), as amended by Schulz (2000) and Yin and Ng (2000), provide a limited context with linear demand where a pure strategy equilibrium does exist. These results seem encumbered by functional form assumptions, which we feel hamper their effective application in our context.

Schulz (1999) offers an alternative approach: self-confirming beliefs of consumers that they will not be rationed lead them to choose buildings facing capacity constraints. When

deviations in competitor prices do induce rationing, they are prevented from returning to that competitor's product by search costs. Crucially, if a deviation in competitor pricing occurs, then consumers are prohibited from forming new beliefs about rationing. Presumably, search costs do not occur in the initial search. Under linear demand, arbitrarily high, finite search costs are sufficient to preclude re-searching. This is not the case with our logit demand under all rationing rules, but is with efficient rationing. Two conditions are needed to avoid a kink in demand: first, an increase in price must induce the same change in initial consumer building selection as would be the case without rationing; second, rationed consumers must not be allowed to return to the deviating building. The first is achieved with self-confirming beliefs. The second is achieved with search costs.

A.1.3 After-market Arbitrage

Another possible solution is allowing for an after-market arbitrage between consumers who were allocated spots in rationed buildings and those who attempted to gain entry but were not allotted spots. In this subgame setup, prices are posted, consumers apply for buildings in any order they choose, facing an increasing marginal cost of application (which could be pecuniary or time costs). After applying to a building, spots are allocated by lessors at random. If they are not allocated a spot, they can search again or participate in an after-market with the mass of consumers who were allocated spots, exchanging their spot for some endogenously determined market-clearing price. There is no search cost for the outside option.

In contrast to Schulz, here consumers know demand, prices and capacity, so they are aware that they face a lottery if they choose certain buildings. Off-equilibrium, their demand for such a building includes the payoff if they win, whether they choose to stay or sell, the payoff if they lose, and the probability of each. The secondary market is competitive because consumers are small, so those who choose to sell will have the lowest willingness to pay for the rationed building. This ensures a finite market clearing price. If the second search costs are chosen to be higher than that price, no one will choose to enter the lottery for a constrained building only to sell to return to an unconstrained option, except for those who initially prefer the outside option.

The key is that in this setup, at the consumer's initial choice, the outside option is always dominated by the choice of entering the lottery for a constrained building. Winning the lottery for a constrained building effectively lowers the price of the outside option for those consumers who prefer the outside option in a "traditional equilibrium" without ca-

capacity constraints. This increases the share of consumers choosing the constrained building (in lieu of the outside option) in the first search. Raising prices at unconstrained buildings does two things: it reduces the elasticity of residual demand by inducing rationing at constrained buildings, making those choices relatively less attractive, but reduces the cost of the outside option, increasing elasticity. When the share of the outside option is large (or, in terms of model primitives, its mean value arbitrarily high), the latter effect dominates and the demand curve kinks in the opposite direction, so raising prices results in more elastic demand.

A.2 Local Redevelopment Failure Details

We claimed that given any set of costs, we could construct a demand schedule such that redevelopment failure occurs. Here, we show this in four steps. Note, we ignore ‘landlord services’ costs, C^f , for ease of notation.

First, choose any development cost function $C : \mathcal{R} \rightarrow \mathcal{R}$ such that $C(\cdot)$ is continuous, convex, and strictly increasing. Now, fix some initial quantity: q^0 .

Second, we choose an inverse demand function $r : \mathcal{R} \rightarrow \mathcal{R}$ such that $r(\cdot)$ is continuous, differentiable, and strictly decreasing. We also choose this demand function, given $C(\cdot)$ and q^0 , such that it satisfies three properties: [1] $q^* = \arg \max \{r(q) \cdot q - C(q)\}$, [2] $q^0 < q^*$, and [3] $r(q^*) \cdot q^* - C(q^*) > r(q^0) \cdot q^0$. From these properties, $r(q^*) \cdot q^* - C(q^*) > r(q^*) \cdot q^0$ as $r(q^*) < r(q^0)$. We can rearrange the inequality: $r(q^*)(q^* - q^0) - \int_{q^0}^{q^*} C'(q) dq - C(q^0) > 0$. By assumptions on $r(\cdot)$: $\int_{q^0}^{q^*} r(q) dq > r(q^*)(q^* - q^0)$,⁴² and so $\int_{q^0}^{q^*} (r(q) - C'(q)) dq > C(q^0)$.

So far, from an arbitrary cost function and initial quantity, we created an inverse demand function such that redevelopment is both profitable and socially desirable.

Third, we consider a new inverse demand function, $\tilde{r}(q) = r(q) - A$, where $A \in \mathcal{R}$. For any $A \neq 0$, this new demand schedule creates a new initial rent, $\tilde{r}(q^0)$, and a new monopoly point, $(q^A, \tilde{r}(q^A))$. Thus, manipulating the A term allows us to adjust the social surplus of redevelopment.

Fourth, we choose a specific A such that $\int_{q^0}^{q^S} (\tilde{r}(q) - C'(q)) dq = C(q^0)$. That is, we use A to vertically shift the inverse demand down until the area under its curve is equal to the fixed amount $C(q^0)$. Thus, redevelopment is now marginally socially desirable. However, by definition of the integral and the demand assumptions: $\tilde{r}(q^S)(q^S - q^0) < C(q^S)$, so redevelopment is no longer profitable to the landlord. $\square$

⁴²That is, the area under a continuous curve (with negative slope) is greater than the rectangle within it.

A.3 Policy 1 Eliminates Local Redevelopment Failure

Here we prove our claim that Policy 1 eliminates local redevelopment failure. Suppose that $\int_{q^0}^{q^*} (r(q) - c(q))dq - C(q^0) > 0$ but $r(q^*) \cdot q^* - C(q^*) < r(q^0) \cdot q^0$, so that redevelopment is socially optimal but privately not profitable. Redevelopment failure is solved if the subsidy, S , causes redevelopment to be net-profitable: $r(q^*) \cdot q^* - C(q^*) + S - r(q^0) \cdot q^0 > 0$. Recall that $q^* = \arg \max \{r(q) \cdot q - C(q)\}$, so by definition $r(q^*) \cdot q^* - C(q^*) > r(q^0) \cdot q^0 - C(q^0)$. If $S = C(q^0)$, then we have satisfied the claim. $\square$

A.4 Proof of Proposition 1

Proposition 1 has three consequents. The first is that the policy is implementable using only observable market information. The second is that local redevelopment failure is reduced. These two consequents are obvious from inspection.

The third is that the policies together are local social welfare improving. This claim implicitly has two parts: first, that the subsidies are never larger than the social surplus created from redevelopment (no socially wasteful expenditure); second, that the policies lead to positive social welfare relative to the *laissez-faire* outcome (we never distort privately optimal redevelopments). Below, we prove this claim, again ignoring $C^f(\cdot)$ for notational ease.

A.4.1 Subsidized Redevelopment is Welfare Improving

Recall, Policy 2 introduces the following rule: $q \cdot (r - r^S) \geq S = C(q^0)$. This rule states that the landlord must commit to a specific lower rent such that $r^S \leq r - C(q^0)/q^0$. To show that this rule ensures no socially wasteful expenditure occurs, we specify three cases. Let q^S be the chosen quantity by the landlord under the subsidy regime. Once rent is fixed by Policy 2 and the landlord is guaranteed at least the subsidy amount, we allow for the possibility of an arbitrary choice of quantity as long as it is revealed as profitable to the landlord.

Case One: $r^S \geq r(q^*)$. In this case, the rent commitment is not binding, so the landlord will choose the profit maximizing allocation $(q^*, r(q^*))$. The social surplus of this allocation

tion is $\int_{q^0}^{q^*} (r(q) - C'(q)) dq > 0$. We know that:

$$\int_{q^0}^{q^*} (r(q) - C'(q)) dq > (r(q^*) - C'(q^*)) \cdot (q^* - q^0) > (r(q^0) - r(q^*)) \cdot (q^0) = C(q^0), \quad (18)$$

where the first inequality is by assumptions on functional forms (demand is convex decreasing, cost is convex increasing), the second inequality is by profit maximization, and the equality is the definition of subsidy. Thus, the net social surplus is greater than the subsidy.

Case Two: $r^S < r(q^*)$ & $q^S \geq q^*$. We note that the landlord will never choose to set q^S such that the rent is less than the marginal cost; else, the landlord faces a net loss on these units. Next, we note that from Case One redevelopment to q^* is socially desired, and that the point where marginal cost equals rent is the allocation where social surplus is maximized: $(q^{\text{Opt}}, r(q^{\text{Opt}}))$. By continuity and strict monotonicity of $r(\cdot)$ and $C(\cdot)$, it must be that net social surplus is positive for all $q^S \in (q^*, q^{\text{Opt}})$. In fact, net social surplus is greater when $q^S > q^*$.

Case Three: $r^S < r(q^*)$ & $q^S < q^*$. In this case, we rely on the revealed preference of the landlord to take the subsidy versus the *status quo*; i.e., that the subsidized profit with redevelopment is greater than leaving the building as-is.

First, the landlord will never choose to set $q^S < q^0$. To see this, consider the case where $q^S = q^0 - e$, $e > 0$. The subsidized profit condition yields:

$$r^S \cdot (q^0 - e) - C(q^0 - e) + C(q^0) > r^0 \cdot q^0 \quad (19)$$

$$q \cdot (r^S - r^0) - e \cdot r^S - \int_{q^0-e}^{q^0} c(q) dq > 0 \rightarrow \leftarrow . \quad (20)$$

Thus, $q^S \in (q^0, q^*)$.

Next, to show that the social surplus is still greater than the subsidy, we again use the

profit condition:

$$r^S \cdot q^S - C(q^S) + C(q^0) > r^0 \cdot q^0 \quad (21)$$

$$\implies r^S \cdot q^S - C(q^S) > r^0 \cdot q^0 - C(q^0) = r^S \cdot q^0 \quad (22)$$

$$\implies r^S \cdot (q^S - q^0) - C(q^S) > 0 \quad (23)$$

$$\implies r^S \cdot (q^S - q^0) - \int_{q^0}^{q^S} c(q) dq - C(q^0) > 0 \quad (24)$$

$$\implies r^S \cdot (q^S - q^0) - \int_{q^0}^{q^S} c(q) dq > C(q^0) \quad (25)$$

$$\implies \int_{q^0}^{q^S} r(q) dq - \int_{q^0}^{q^S} c(q) dq > C(q^0) = S. \quad (26)$$

Thus, subsidized redevelopment to $q^S \in (q^0, q^*)$ is still socially desirable given our rent commitment rule and that the landlord selects into redevelopment.

A.4.2 No Private Redevelopment is Distorted

We have just shown that any redevelopments that are subsidized must be locally welfare improving relative to the initial building. Here, we show that under Policies 1 and 2, if redevelopment is privately profitable without a subsidy, then the subsidy does not distort this decision to reduce development.

Consider three allocations: ‘initial’ (r_0, q_0) , ‘monopoly’ (r_1, q_1) , and ‘subsidy’ (r_S, q_S) . The monopoly point is a *laissez-faire* profit maximizing allocation, and the subsidy point is the profit maximizing allocation under the policies. For notational ease, we denote terms like profit, marginal cost, and average cost as π_j, c_j, a_j for $j \in \{0, 1, S\}$.

Recall that $\pi_1 = (r_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1$, $\pi_0 = r_0 \cdot q_0$, and $\pi_S = (r_S - a_S) \cdot q_S + S$, where $S = a_0 \cdot q_0$. As before, we ignore costs from landlord services to focus on the redevelopment decisions. Next, recall that Policy 2 is that $(r_0 - r_S) = a_0$ or equivalently $r_S = r_0 - a_0$. Finally, note that our logit demand function is convex / concave-up in price, which implies that the inverse demand function is convex / concave-up in quantity, so $\partial^2 r / \partial q^2 > 0$.

We want to show that under Policies 1 and 2, $\pi_1 - \pi_0 \geq 0 \implies \neg\{q_S \leq q_1 \wedge \pi_1 - \pi_S \leq 0\}$. The proof of this is shown in two cases.

Case One: suppose that $c_a \leq a_S$. Then:

$$\pi_1 - \pi_S = (r_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1 - [(r_S - a_S) \cdot q_S + S] \quad (27)$$

$$= (r_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1 - [(c_S - a_S) \cdot q_S + a_0 \cdot q_0] \quad (28)$$

$$> (r_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1 - a_0 \cdot q_0 \quad (29)$$

$$> (r_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1 - r_0 \cdot q_0 = \pi_1 - \pi_0 \geq 0. \quad (30)$$

Case Two: suppose that $c_a > a_S$. We introduce four minor results.

Lemma 1. *If $c(q) - a(q) \geq 0$, then $(c(q') - a(q')) \geq (c(q) - a(q))$ for all $q' \geq q$, and is strict if $q' > q$.*

This can be seen through differentiation and noting that $C^d(q)$ is convex. Lemma 1 implies that $(c_1 - a_1) \geq (c_S - a_S)$ and is strict if $q_1 > q_S$. Next, Lemma 2 states that the Policy 2 rent is based on the marginal cost curve:

Lemma 2. $r_S = c(q_S)$.

Recall that r_S is fixed, so the marginal revenue is perfectly elastic and equal to r_S .⁴³ Next, Lemma 3 describes profit condition $(\pi_1 - \pi_S)$ as a function of q_S :

Lemma 3. $(\pi_1 - \pi_S)$ is continuous and strictly decreasing in q_S .

Define $\Psi(q_S) = (\pi_1 - \pi_S) = A - [c(q_S) - a(q_S)] \cdot q_S$, and so:

$$\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial q_S} = -[(c'(q_S) - a'(q_S)) \cdot q_S + (c_S - a_S)] < 0. \quad (31)$$

Finally, using Lemma 3, we can state the following:

Lemma 4. *If $q_S = q_1$ and $\Psi(q_S) > 0$, then $\Psi(q_S) > 0$ for all $q_S < q_1$.*

Thus, to prove our claim, we only need to show that, along with other assumptions for this case, $q_S = q_1$ implies $\Psi(q_S) > 0$. Note that $q_S = q_1$ implies the following:

1. $c_S = c_1 > a_1 = a_S$, and
2. $r_S = (r_0 - a_0) \implies a_0 = (r_0 - c_1)$.

⁴³Thus, if $r < c$, then by reducing q profit goes up since the additional units lose revenue; if $r > c$, then by increasing q profit goes up since additional units earn revenue.

Now, see that:

$$(\pi_1 - \pi_S) = (r_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1 - [(r_S - a_S) \cdot q_S + S] \quad (32)$$

$$= (r_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1 - [(c_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1 + (r_0 - c_1) \cdot q_0] \quad (33)$$

$$= [(r_1 - c_1) + (c_1 - a_1)] \cdot q_1 - [(c_1 - a_1) \cdot q_1 + (r_0 - c_1) \cdot q_0] \quad (34)$$

$$= (r_1 - c_1) \cdot q_1 - (r_0 - c_1) \cdot q_0 \quad (35)$$

$$= (r_1 - c_1) \cdot (q_1 - q_0) - (r_0 - r_1) \cdot q_0. \quad (36)$$

Thus $(\pi_1 - \pi_S) \geq 0 \iff (r_1 - c_1) \cdot (q_1 - q_0) - (r_0 - r_1) \cdot q_0 \geq 0$. We next manipulate the right hand inequality:

$$\iff (r_1 - c_1) \cdot (q_1 - q_0) \geq (r_0 - r_1) \cdot q_0 \quad (37)$$

$$\iff \frac{(r_1 - c_1)}{r_1} \cdot r_1 \geq \frac{(r_0 - r_1)}{r_0} \cdot \frac{q_0}{(q_1 - q_0)} \cdot r_0 \quad (38)$$

$$\iff \frac{-r_1}{\varepsilon_1} \geq \frac{-r_0}{\frac{(q_1 - q_0)}{(r_1 - r_0)} \cdot \frac{r_0}{q_0}} \quad (39)$$

$$\iff \frac{-r_1}{\frac{\partial q}{\partial r} \Big|_{q_1} \frac{r_1}{q_1}} \geq \frac{-r_0}{\frac{(q_1 - q_0)}{(r_1 - r_0)} \cdot \frac{r_0}{q_0}} \quad (40)$$

$$\iff \frac{-q_1}{\frac{\partial q}{\partial r} \Big|_{q_1}} \geq \frac{-q_0}{\frac{(q_1 - q_0)}{(r_1 - r_0)}} \quad (41)$$

$$\iff \frac{q_1}{q_0} \geq \frac{-\frac{\partial q}{\partial r} \Big|_{q_1}}{-\frac{(q_1 - q_0)}{(r_1 - r_0)}}. \quad (42)$$

Finally, we note that $\partial^2 r / \partial q^2 \geq 0$ implies $\frac{q_1}{q_0} \geq 1 \geq \frac{-\frac{\partial q}{\partial r} \Big|_{q_1}}{-\frac{(q_1 - q_0)}{(r_1 - r_0)}}$. That is, since the first derivative is negative, a positive second derivative implies the absolute value of the first derivative is getting smaller (towards zero from negative infinity). It is relatively straightforward to show for convex / concave up functions that:

$$\text{abs} \left(\frac{q' - q}{r' - r} \right) \geq \text{abs} \left(\frac{\partial q}{\partial r} \Big|_{q'} \right) \quad \text{if } q' > q \quad \& \quad \partial q(r) / \partial r < 0. \quad (43)$$

Thus, we have shown that no privately optimal redevelopment is distorted. $\square$

A.5 Intuition for Proof of Policies 1 and 2

While the proof above shows that the result is fairly general with well-behaved demand and cost functions (as made precise in the proof above), we can use a simple Supply-and-Demand plot to visually provide some intuition. See Figure A.1 that depicts a monopolistic firm with constant marginal cost (normalized to zero). We will consider the special case where the redevelopment subsidy induces redevelopment to the monopoly-optimal quantity, q_m ; however, as we have shown above, this is not necessary.

Define the initial profit of the building as $\pi^0 = A + B$. If the building redevelops, then define the new profit as $\pi^1 = B + D - R_0 - \Delta$, where $C^d(q_0) = R_0$ and $C^d(q_m) = C^d(q_0) + \Delta$. Note, the total social surplus is the entire area under the demand curve.

Let's assume that $\pi^0 > \pi^1 \implies A + B > B + D - R_0 - \Delta$. By definition of q_m being the monopolistic solution, we get: $B + D - R_0 - \Delta > A + B - R_0$. That is, if the landlord were starting from greenfield development, then the optimal quantity would be q_m and the optimal rent would be r_m . Given this definition, note the following:

$$B + D - R_0 - \Delta > A + B - R_0 \quad (44)$$

$$\implies D - \Delta > A \quad (45)$$

$$\implies D > A + \Delta. \quad (46)$$

We now invoke our special case: $R_0 = A$, so Policy 1 sets $S = R_o$ and Policy 2 sets $r_s = r_m$. To see that $\pi^1 + S > \pi_0$, we just plug in the values:

$$B + D - R_o - \Delta + S > A + B \quad (47)$$

$$\implies D - R_o - \Delta + R_o > A \quad (48)$$

$$\implies D - \Delta > A \quad (49)$$

$$\implies D > A + \Delta, \quad (50)$$

where by definition of q_m , we have shown the last line holds. Thus, in this special case, the (S, r_s) induce redevelopment from q_0 to q_m that is socially worthwhile.

To think about how the policies interact: Policy 1 sets the subsidy; Policy 2 requires that $r_s = r_q$ by working backwards from (S, r_o, q_o) . The monopolist cannot charge a higher rent, and because of this the monopolist is induced to choose q_m because it is the profit maximizing choice *conditional on* r_m . It would only be optimal to build less than q_m if the landlord could increase the rent.

Since the total social surplus is the entire area under the demand curve, then we know that $C + D > A$ that the planner chooses 'to pay' for the redevelopment. The optimal subsidy would use this additional 'budget' the planner can spend; however, this policy is likely difficult to implement.

Finally, we have chosen the special case where $A = S$, but as long as demand and cost are well-behaved (as made precise in the proof above), then we can choose any point along the demand curve to the right of q_0 . Essentially, in well-behaved demand curves we consider, profit is monotonically increasing from q_0 to q_{CE} (peaking at q_m), so any redevelopment is welfare improving and socially worthwhile, conditional on the landlord is willing to accept the imposed r_s .

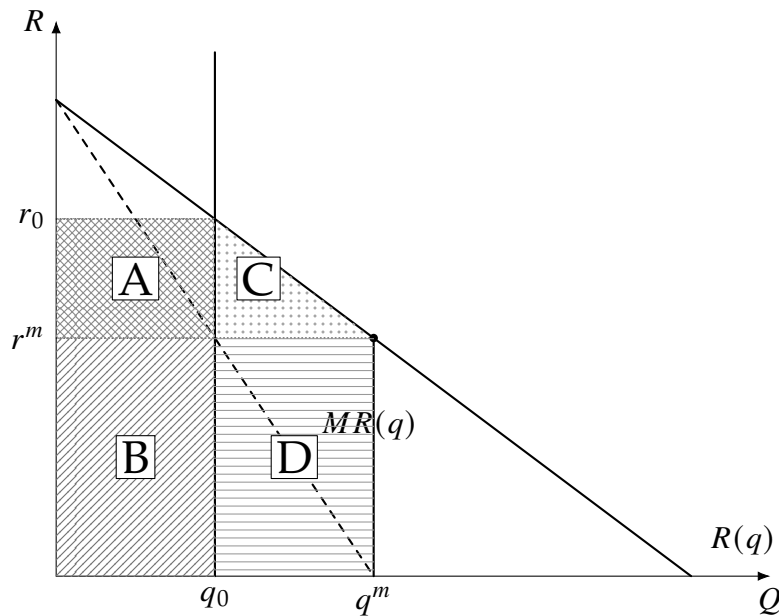


Figure A.1: Discussion of Redevelopment Failure.

A.6 Proof of Proposition 2

Binding zoning restrictions, by reducing quantities at a given plot, increase rents at that plot. The rest of Proposition 2 will follow as long as plots, as competing products, are strategic complements in pricing decisions.

Definition A.1. Strategic Complements: If the cross derivative of a given player's own payoff function with respect to her own action and that a rival's action is positive, then the actions are strategic complements.

Here, we switch to indexing buildings using j and k rather than the building quality, a . Recall that $D_j = \frac{e^{F(a_j, r(a_j))}}{\sum_{k \in \mathcal{A}} \{e^{F(a_k, r(a_k))}\}}$ from the main text using logit demand. To make notation easier, define $\alpha = \partial F(a, r)/\partial r < 0$ be the (negative) marginal utility of consumption. In addition, denote $C(q)$ as the composite cost function and likewise $c(q)$ for marginal cost.⁴⁴

In our Bertrand oligopoly setting, rents are strategic complements if

$$\frac{\partial^2 \pi_j}{\partial r_j \partial r_k} = \frac{\partial [\partial D_j / \partial r_j]}{\partial r_k} \cdot (r_j - c_j) + \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_j} \cdot \left(-\frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_k} \right) + \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_k} \geq 0. \quad (51)$$

When we apply Logit demand functions, this becomes:

$$\frac{\partial^2 \pi_j}{\partial r_j \partial r_k} = -\alpha^2 D_j D_k (1 - 2D_j)(r_j - C_j) - c_j \alpha D_j (1 - D_j) - \alpha D_j D_k \quad (52)$$

$$= \underbrace{-\alpha D_j D_k}_{>0} \left[\underbrace{\frac{D_j}{(1 - D_j)}}_{>0} + \underbrace{(-c_j \alpha D_j (1 - D_j))}_{>0 \text{ only if } c_j > 0} \right]. \quad (53)$$

A sufficient condition for strategic complements in the logit case is that $c_j \geq 0 \forall j$. This is true with constant marginal costs or diseconomies of scale for the building. With decreasing marginal costs, the strategic complementarity of pricing decisions is ambiguous and may vary between pairs of buildings.

If marginal cost is constant, then the rent increase could only be due to an increase in monopoly markups. With variable marginal cost, the rent changes are a mix of markup and marginal cost increases. Decreasing marginal costs would push the landlord to expand quantity supplied and travel further down the demand curve, which may lead to a smaller markup per unit but greater profit (and lower rent). On the other hand, increasing marginal costs attenuate the landlord's desire to expand keeping the landlord in a steeper part of the demand curve but with greater marginal costs eating into the markup.

If marginal cost is 'locally constant' in equilibrium (i.e., its change is 'small enough'), then we can say buildings are strategic complements in the logit case. Given strategic complements of price strategies, an increase in zoning constrained building k 's rent will increase demand for unzoned building j , and increases the price at j accordingly. $\square$

⁴⁴Alternatively, assume all redevelopment decisions are fixed, and landlords are only competing on occupancy and considering their landlord service costs.

A.7 Discussion of Impact of Concentration.

In our main text, each plot is owned by a single agent at all times. Here, we discuss the effects of changes in building ownership. We prove that when a landlord's parcel ownership concentration increases, the landlord increases the prices at all properties. Note, we consider only the joint developer-landlord problem and relax the assumption that each landlord owns only one parcel. We apply the framework of [Nocke and Schutz \(2018a,b\)](#) to calculate the price effect by utilizing the ' ι -markup of the landlord' from the authors' papers. While those authors use a nested-logit model with constant marginal cost, we remove the nesting structure and allow variable marginal cost.

To prove the proposition, we wish to show that, in the logit case with non-decreasing marginal cost, rent is increasing in market-share of the landlord: $\frac{\partial r_j}{\partial s_f} > 0, \forall j \in f$. Below, we show this in the two product case for intuition and then in the general case with an arbitrary number of buildings. As in the proof above, we use a composite cost function $C(q)$ and its marginal cost $c(q)$.

Oligopolist Pricing Equation First, we show that landlord f chooses a common markup ([Nocke and Schutz, 2018a,b](#)). Let each landlord solve the following joint-profit equation:

$$\max_{\{r_j\}_{j \in f}} \sum_{j \in f} r_j D_j(r_j) - C_j(D_j(r_j)). \quad (54)$$

Following the insight from [Nocke and Schutz \(2018b\)](#), the first-order for each property satisfies:

$$(r_j - c_j) = \frac{-1}{\alpha} + \pi_f = \frac{-1}{\alpha(1 - s_f)} \implies r_j = c_j - \frac{1}{\alpha(1 - s_f)} > 0, \quad (55)$$

where $\alpha < 0$ is the (negative) marginal utility of consumption. We assume that $c_j > 0$ and its derivative is positive: $\tilde{c}_j := \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \geq 0, \forall j \in J$.⁴⁵

Two Product Case Recall again that under logit demand:

⁴⁵A micro-foundation is that the residential space production function is concave in inputs, which implies that the cost function is convex in quantity; hence, marginal cost is non-decreasing in quantity.

$$\frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_j} = \alpha D_j (1 - D_j) < 0 \quad (56)$$

$$\frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_j} = -\alpha D_j D_k > 0 \quad (57)$$

Now, we differentiate with respect to the landlord's total market share:

$$r_j = \frac{-1}{\alpha(1-s_f)} + c_j \quad (58)$$

$$\Rightarrow \frac{\partial r_j}{\partial s_f} = \frac{-1}{\alpha(1-s_f)^2} + \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \left(\frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_j} \frac{\partial r_j}{\partial s_f} + \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_k} \frac{\partial r_k}{\partial s_f} \right) \quad (59)$$

and by symmetry:

$$\frac{\partial r_j}{\partial s_f} = \frac{\frac{-1}{\alpha(1-s_f)^2} + \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_k} \left[\frac{\frac{-1}{\alpha(1-s_f)^2} + \frac{\partial c_k}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_j} \frac{\partial r_j}{\partial s_f}}{\left(1 - \frac{\partial c_k}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_k}\right)} \right]}{\left(1 - \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_j}\right)} \quad (60)$$

$$= \frac{-1}{\alpha(1-s_f)^2} \left[\frac{1 - \frac{\partial c_k}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_k} + \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_k}}{\left(1 - \frac{\partial c_k}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_k}\right) \left(1 - \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_j}\right) - \left(\frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_k}\right) \left(\frac{\partial c_k}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_j}\right)} \right]. \quad (61)$$

Finally, we impose the logit model to get:

$$\frac{-1}{\alpha(1-s_f)^2} \left[\frac{1 - \frac{\partial c_k}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_k} + \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_k}}{1 - \frac{\partial c_k}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_k} - \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_j}{\partial r_j} - \frac{\partial c_j}{\partial q} \frac{\partial c_k}{\partial q} \frac{\partial D_k}{\partial r_j} \alpha(1-s_f)} \right] > 0. \quad (62)$$

A.8 General Product Case

Note that we have the following:

$$[r_i] = [\Gamma(s_f) \cdot 1_f] + [c_i(D_i)] \quad (63)$$

$$D_{s_f} r = [\Gamma'(s_f) \cdot 1_f] + D_q c \cdot D_r D \cdot D_{s_f} r \quad (64)$$

$$\Rightarrow D_{s_f} r \cdot [\mathbb{I} - D_q c \cdot D_r D] = [\Gamma'(s_f) \cdot 1_f] \quad (65)$$

$$\Rightarrow D_{s_f} r = [\mathbb{I} - D_q c \cdot D_r D]^{-1} \cdot [\Gamma'(s_f) \cdot 1_f] \quad (66)$$

A.8.1 Definitions and Lemmas

Definition A.2. Strictly (Row) Diagonally Dominant: for every row, i , the element along the diagonal, a_{ii} , is greater in magnitude than the sum of the magnitudes of each non-diagonal element in the row $a_{i,j}$, $j \neq i$. That is, $|a_{i,i}| > \sum_{j \neq i} |a_{i,j}|$.

Definition A.3. Z-matrix: a matrix whose off-diagonal entries are less than or equal to zero.

Definition A.4. M-matrix: a Z-matrix where every real eigenvalue of A is positive.

Lemma 5. If A is a Z-matrix that is strictly diagonally dominant, then A is an M-matrix by the Gershgorin Circle Theorem.

Lemma 6. If A is an M-matrix with positive diagonals and negative off diagonals, then $B = A^{-1}$ is monotone positive; i.e., $b_{ij} > 0$, $\forall i, j$; proof in Fan 1958.

A.8.2 General Case Proof

We need to show that the lemma holds and that the vector $B \cdot \Gamma'(s)$ is a monotone positive vector. Let $[\mathbb{I} - D_q c \cdot D_r D] = A$.

First, see that A is (a) a Z-matrix that is (b) Strictly (Row) Diagonally Dominant :

(a) for each row, using logit demand, we have

$$a_{i,i} = 1 - \tilde{c}_i \alpha D_i (1 - D_i) > 0 \quad (67)$$

$$a_{i,j} = \tilde{c}_i \alpha D_i D_j < 0 \quad (68)$$

(b) plug into definition of (row) diagonally dominant

$$\implies 1 + \tilde{c}_i |\alpha| D_i (1 - D_i) > \sum_{j \in f \setminus i} \tilde{c}_i |\alpha| D_i D_j = \tilde{c}_i |\alpha| D_i \sum_{j \in f \setminus i} D_j \quad (69)$$

$$\implies 1 + \tilde{c}_i |\alpha| D_i > \tilde{c}_i |\alpha| D_i \cdot s_f. \quad (70)$$

Thus A satisfies lemma 6, so B is a monotone positive matrix.

Second, $\Gamma'(s_f) = \frac{d}{ds_f} \frac{-1}{\alpha(1-s_f)} = \frac{-1}{\alpha(1-s_f)^2} > 0$.

Thus as $B \cdot \Gamma'(s_f)$ is a series of multiplication and addition of positive numbers, so $D_{s_f} r$ must be a monotone positive vector. $\square$

A.9 Alternative Models

In this section, we explore how alternative frameworks affect theoretical results. We first explore a competitive model as an instructive benchmark relative to the model in the main text. We then explore several extensions of our model.

A.9.1 Competitive Urban Model

Here, we develop an urban model where rents are differentiated based on local amenities but landlords still have no pricing power. The primary assumptions are that landlords view themselves as atomistic and that renters' preferences are uniform.

Consider a city with fixed population of renters $i \in N$ and a set of locations $j \in J$. Each location has a local amenity x_j and rent r_j , and is owned by a unique, atomistic landlord who is a price-taker providing housing with a marginal cost of $c_j(q)$ for q residents. Each atomistic renter must choose one unit of housing and has preferences over amenities and consumption, and we can describe their utility using the value function $u_{i,j} = x_j - r_j$. In the competitive spatial equilibrium, (1) all renters are housed in their utility maximizing location, (2) utility is equal everywhere, and (3) landlords earn zero profits. These conditions imply that (1) $\sum_j q_j = N$, (2) $u_{i,j} = \bar{u}$, and (3) $c_j(q_j) = r_j$.

To find a solution, we note that (2) implies that $r_j = x_j - \bar{u}$, that (3) implies $q_j = c_j^{-1}(r_j)$, and together with (1) we have $\sum_j \left(c_j^{-1}(x_j - \bar{u}) \right) = N$. These equations form a system of $J+1$ unknowns $(\{\vec{r}, \bar{u}\})$, $J+1$ parameters $(\{\vec{x}, N\})$, and $J+1$ equations:

$$\sum_j \left(c_j^{-1}(x_j - \bar{u}) \right) = N$$

$$r_j = x_j - \bar{u}.$$

The above equations make clear that changes in marginal cost at j do not impact rents r_j . Furthermore, were the outside option $\bar{u}$ to be endogenously determined through N , say through idiosyncratic tastes for the outside option, the impact of a cost shock at j on rent r_j would operate only through the outside option $\bar{u}$, i.e. insofar as marginal costs at j contribute to a market-level cost shock. Thus, if landlords are atomistic, then an idiosyncratic cost shock will not affect $\bar{u}$ nor rent.

A.9.2 Markups in the Monocentric City Model

In this section, we adapt the monocentric city model to include individual heterogeneity in location preferences for a finite set of locations that induces downward sloping residual demand for locations. This heterogeneity implies that markups exist and that profits are increasing with proximity to the city center. In addition, prices in denser areas are higher and the quantity of housing lower than if the supply were competitive (price set to marginal cost). Pricing power results in a city that is flatter, demonstrating how pricing power acts as a dispersive force.

We begin with the model from Appendix A.9.1, which immediately precedes this section, noting that x_j can denote location j 's distance to the city center on a line segment, with differences between any two locations j and $j + 1$'s distances x_j and x_{j+1} being constant and nonzero for all j s (such that there are a large but finite set of locations J), starting with the CBD itself at $j = 0$ with distance $x_0 = 0$, until an endogenously determined periphery point, j^b with distance to CBD x_{j^b} .⁴⁶ In addition, we assume a mass N of renters and for simplicity we assume that the city is closed. The assumption of a discrete number of locations follows Berliant and Fujita (1992) and is a departure from standard monocentric city models, where space is continuous for tractability reasons, but similar to Alonso's original model.

We now adjust the above model by positing that indirect utility of each individual i at location j is a combination of location j 's rent, r_j , and distance to the CBD, x_j , as well as an idiosyncratic valuation parameter, ϵ_i , drawn from some distribution $G(\epsilon)$ where $\epsilon \geq 0$ and $E[\epsilon] \in \mathcal{R}_+$:

$$v_i(j) = (1 - x_j)\epsilon_i - r_j. \quad (71)$$

Note that this is isomorphic to heterogeneous transportation costs.⁴⁷

Downward-sloping demand for each location is derived from renter heterogeneity and the assertion that for each distance x_j there is only 1 plot of that distance (with differences $x_j - x_{j+1} > 0$ and constant). An alternative approach that would sustain markups in the presence of multiple plots with identical values x_j would be to assume renter-location specific heterogeneity $\epsilon_{i,j}$ as in the main text discrete choice model. In such a setting, markups can converge to a positive constant even as the number of choices goes to infinity.

In the present setting, willingness to pay for each location will be different for each

⁴⁶Note, defining x_J as the furthest point from the CBD that is feasible given the landscape (possibly due to natural features), we allow for $x_{j^b} \leq x_J$.

⁴⁷In addition, we assume that all units are constrained to be equal sized.

individual. This generates a downward sloping residual demand curve for each location j that brings about markups. As in the previous model, willingness to pay is also determined by prices at other locations:

$$WTP_i(j) = \min_{j'} \{ (1 - x_j)\epsilon_i - (1 - x_{j'})\epsilon_i - r_{j'} \}. \quad (72)$$

Note that for any given option j' , the difference between i 's valuations of j and j' is increasing in ϵ_i . This super-modularity guarantees a sorting equilibrium: each location j will be populated by a set of types $[\underline{\epsilon}_j, \bar{\epsilon}_j]$, with higher locations having higher cutoffs (Mirrlees, 1971). Locally, the only relevant alternatives for individuals at plot j are at plots $j - 1$ and $j + 1$. Specifically, at each plot j there is a threshold, $\tilde{\epsilon}_j$, below which the relevant alternative is $j + 1$, and above which the relevant alternative is $j - 1$: the highest types in each plot will be deciding between j and moving one space nearer to the city center while the lower types will be deciding between j and moving one space further.

Locally, conditional on $\epsilon_i > \tilde{\epsilon}_j$, willingness to pay for j is therefore:

$$WTP_i(j) = (x_{j-1} - x_j)\epsilon_i - r_{j-1}, \quad (73)$$

while below $\tilde{\epsilon}_j$, willingness to pay for j is:

$$WTP_i(j) = (x_{j+1} - x_j)\epsilon_i - r_{j+1}. \quad (74)$$

Total demand for j given a price r_j is therefore

$$q_j(r_j) = P(\epsilon > \tilde{\epsilon}_j) \cdot P\left(\epsilon < \frac{r_{j-1} - r_j}{x_j - x_{j-1}}\right) + P(\epsilon \leq \tilde{\epsilon}_j) \cdot P\left(\epsilon > \frac{r_j - r_{j+1}}{x_{j+1} - x_j}\right) \quad (75)$$

or

$$q_j(r_j) = [1 - G(\tilde{\epsilon}_j)] \cdot G\left(\frac{r_{j-1} - r_j}{x_j - x_{j-1}}\right) + G(\tilde{\epsilon}_j) \cdot \left[1 - G\left(\frac{r_j - r_{j+1}}{x_{j+1} - x_j}\right)\right]. \quad (76)$$

It's clear from the above that quantity demanded is declining in price on two margins: as r_j increases, those at the top margin near $\bar{\epsilon}_j$ leave for $j - 1$ and those at the bottom margin $\underline{\epsilon}_j$ leave for $j + 1$. Marginal revenue is therefore also declining. As in the main text,

profits are given by:

$$\pi = \max_{\mathbb{1}_{redev}, q_j} \begin{cases} r_j(q_j) \cdot q_j - C^d(q_j) - C^f(q_j) & \text{if } \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 1 \\ 0 & \text{if } \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 0, \end{cases} \quad (77)$$

where here we assume for simplicity no structure currently exists at any location j , no transfers, and costs are symmetric. We also now assert a fixed cost of development $C^d(0) > 0$.

At each location, taking prices at all other plots $r_{j'}$ as given, landlords set quantities to maximize profits and will do so where falling marginal revenues are equal to marginal cost. Because prices must be decreasing with distance x_j in the sorting equilibrium described above, r_{j+1} and r_{j-1} are also falling with x_j . All else equal, demand at any price is falling in x_j . It follows that plots closer to the city will have higher quantities and profits. It further follows that the city will be filled in: if a location j is developed, all locations $j' < j$ will also be developed.

To close the model, the peripheral location, j^b at distance x_{j^b} , must be found, after which no development occurs. Note that quantity demanded at j^b is given by:

$$q_{j^b}^D(r_{j^b}) = G \left(\frac{r_{j^b-1} - r_{j^b}}{x_{j^b} - x_{j^b-1}} \right). \quad (78)$$

A slight complication to note is that, as is present in the above demand expression, at this location (as well as at the most central location) there is only a single margin from which to draw additional individuals, or to which marginal individuals leave.

Because space is discrete, we have an approximation of a zero profit condition in Eq 79. The peripheral location, j^b , is defined as the furthest plot from the city center such that its profit is weakly positive (and almost zero) but at the next undeveloped plot, $(j^b + 1)$, profit upon entry is strictly negative:

$$0 > r_{(j^b+1)}(q_{(j^b+1)}) \cdot q_{(j^b+1)} - C^d(q_{(j^b+1)}) - C^f(q_{(j^b+1)}). \quad (79)$$

Despite (near) zero profits, the landlord at j^b still sets rent with a markup over marginal cost. Rather, the fixed cost $C^d(0)$ almost exactly offsets variable profit from the optimally chosen quantity at the periphery (and profits are increasing towards the city center).

Finally, the total quantity of housing provided must equal the total quantity demanded:

$$N = \sum_0^{j^b} q_j^*(r_j^*), \quad (80)$$

where q_j^* and r_j^* are equilibrium, profit-maximizing quantities and prices at plot j .

To see monopoly power act as a dispersion force, note that at the city center, $j = 0$, demand is given by:

$$q_0^D(r_0) = 1 - G\left(\frac{r_0 - r_1}{x_1}\right). \quad (81)$$

Quantity at this location is lower than in a competitive model both due to the landlord at $j = 0$ setting rent above marginal cost *and*, through general equilibrium forces: rent at $j = 1$ is also set to its marginal cost. However, not every location will experience reduced density: the equilibrium effects of reduced density at the center push demand out to the periphery, and, at some point, these effects may dominate the pricing power effect and locations further away may be more built up than under marginal cost pricing. Furthermore, the increased profitability at j^b and the general equilibrium effects increasing demand at j^b imply that the peripherally developed plot is *further* away from the CBD under monopolistic pricing. Taken together, these facts imply that the density of the monopolistically priced city first-order stochastically dominates that of the city built to marginal cost pricing (although we do not formally show this).

We reiterate that the markup in this setting is a feature of two items: heterogeneity of individual taste in the form of the (variance of the) distribution $G(\epsilon)$, and amenity differences $x_j - x_{j-1}$. As either go to zero, markups are eliminated. This is **not** the case if, instead, heterogeneity took the form of individual-by-location draws, $\epsilon_{i,j}$, as in the model in the main text. Under this regime with specific assumptions on the distribution of $G(\epsilon)$, markups will converge to a constant as the distance between spaces converges to zero or, as on a disk, multiple buildings with the same value of x coexist.

A.9.3 Entry and Exit to Other Real Estate Markets

Our baseline model takes the number of parcels available for rent as constant. An alternative, and more realistic, assumption is that landlords can choose which of several housing markets to enter. For example, a landlord with an *ex ante* rental building could sell it as condominiums or a commercial building could be converted to residential space.

In such a setup, the city overall is still comprised of an exogenous set of parcels, $\mathcal{A} = \{a_0, a_1, a_2, \dots, a_J\}$, but each housing market, m , consists of an endogenously selected and mutually exclusive subset of parcels, $\bigcup_m \mathcal{A}_m = \mathcal{A}$, for all real estate markets m . Once these sets are determined, equations (1)-(9) remain the same as in the main text. To close the model and determine these sets, we add an additional equilibrium constraint. Facing different demand (and potentially costs) in each market, each landlord chooses which housing market to enter, such that the chosen market is the profit-maximizing market for that parcel:

$$m_a^* = \operatorname{argmax}_m \{\pi_a^m\}. \quad (82)$$

Exit and entry change the plots' profitability in their incumbent markets. In the case of symmetric costs and demand for all buildings in each market, this yields a profit equalization condition across markets.

Because of the real costs of these kinds of switches and policy-determined constraints, we observe relatively few buildings switching between markets over the course of our sample. Still, such a setup might be more descriptive of a very long-run land-use equilibrium.

A.9.4 Generalized Free Entry

Another alternative assumption is that there is a fringe of parcels with the capacity to freely enter the market. That is, undeveloped land that could be turned into apartment buildings. This arrangement is difficult to fathom in a built urban core, such as our empirical setting in New York, but could be appropriate for locations proximate to large undeveloped terrain.

In this case, again, the set of parcels available for renters is endogenous in the model, and—again—conditional on this decision, equations (1)-(9) remain unchanged. An easy structure to close such a model is to assume a fixed entry cost ξ_e (e.g., a permitting cost), before a draw of the location amenity a . Although we do not specify profitability as a function of a , the equilibrium condition determining the set $\mathcal{A}$ is that profits are zero in expectation:

$$E[\pi_a] = \xi_e \quad (83)$$

In this case, expected profits are zero, but realized profits may be heterogeneous. *Ex post* of entry, landlords still charge markups. While profits are zero, in general, efficiency of this market structure depends on more restrictive assumptions on preferences ([Bilbiie](#),

Ghironi, and Melitz, 2008).

It should also be noted that under this market structure, typical analyses of urban policies are highly non-regular. For example, the welfare impact of zoning can become ambiguous, as parcel-level deviations from efficiency could be ameliorated by the policy's (potential) effect on induced entry. For this reason, and because the assumption of free entry is unrealistic in the urban core, we do not favor this analysis.

A.9.5 Uncertainty

We consider uncertainty in the form of uncertain (future) building-specific demand, so that the joint developer-landlord expected profit function is:

$$E[\pi_a] = \max_{\mathbb{I}_{redev}, q_a} \begin{cases} E[\mu \cdot r_a(q_a) \cdot q_a - C_a^d(q_a) - C_a^f(q_a) + S_a] & \text{if } \mathbb{I}_{redev} = 1 \\ E[\mu \cdot r_a(q_a) \cdot q_a - C_a^f(q_a)] & \text{if } \mathbb{I}_{redev} = 0 \end{cases} \quad (84)$$

where μ is an exogenous, stochastic parameter capturing the uncertainty of future demand with distribution $G(\mu)$ that is non-negative and has finite mean and variance. In this case, the developer-landlord's optimal choice of q (conditional on the redevelopment) and the redevelopment decision only depend on $E(\mu)$, rather than the realized value. Because the demand system is stochastic, the social surplus is also stochastic, and a social planner optimizes over the same expected value, $E(\mu)$. Redevelopment failure occurs, if it occurs, for the non-stochastic demand system $E[\mu] \cdot r_a(q_a)$, and Proposition 1 remains unchanged.

This approach differs from Titman (1985) in that our redevelopment decision must be decided upon before the realized state of the world. We also differ from Capozza and Li (1994), who model uncertainty in a continuous time framework with Brownian motion. The latter framework is fitting for a separate research question: *what dictates the timing of redevelopment decisions?* Though beyond the scope of this paper to analyze, we note that as is standard in the investment literature, demand variance generates option value and postpones investment. As in He and Kondor (2016), suboptimal redevelopment may occur.

A.9.6 Endogenous Quality Selection

Here we consider a model extension where developers are allowed the additional choice of adjusting building quality when considering redevelopment.

Buildings, indexed by j , can be in one of a set of discrete, hierarchical quality categories

$a \in A = \{a_1, a_2, \dots, a_Q\}$, where we say $a_{j,0}$ is the initial quality.⁴⁸ In addition, each building has some initial capacity, $q_{j,0}$. We let the as-is sale price of the building vary across buildings, even conditional on initial quality and size, due to various factors such as different capital vintages and depreciation. Developer d , who owns a parcel containing a building with attributes $(a_{j,0}, q_{j,0})$, chooses whether to sell the building as-is or to redevelop, and, conditional on redeveloping, chooses a quality, a , from the discrete set of potential quality types and a new quantity, q , conditional on long-run zoning regulations.

Thus, the developer's new maximization problem is:

$$\pi^d = \max_{\{\mathbb{1}_{redev}, a, q\}} \begin{cases} s_j(a_{j,0}, q_{j,0}) & \text{if } \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 0 \\ [s(a, q) - C(q, a)] \cdot \xi_a^d & \text{if } \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 1 \end{cases} \quad (85)$$

s.t. $q \leq q_{j,z}$,

where we now assume the cost function and sale prices are quality but not developer specific, and the value of redevelopment to a specific quality a has an idiosyncratic component ξ_a^d , which is developer and quality specific, drawn from a Fréchet distribution with shape parameter θ : $F(\xi) = e^{\xi^{-\theta}}$.

Solving the developer problem in reverse may be instructive. Because all buildings of a specific quality face the same cost function and residual demand, all developers choosing to redevelop to a given quality will also choose to redevelop to the same quantity, which we refer to as q_a .⁴⁹ Embedding the quantity choice into the quality choice, the problem now becomes a standard discrete choice problem with Fréchet draws. In particular, *conditional on redevelopment*, the probability of choosing quality a is:

$$\Pr(a \mid \mathbb{1}_{redev} = 1) = \frac{(s(a, q_a) - C(a, q_a))^\theta}{\sum_{a' \in A} (s(a', q_{a'}) - C(a', q_{a'}))^\theta}. \quad (86)$$

Furthermore, conditional on a non-redeveloped building sale price of $\tilde{s}_0$, which maps to a set of initial building qualities and sizes, the share of buildings being redeveloped to

⁴⁸Note, we no longer index buildings by a , as in the main text, since this is now a choice variable.

⁴⁹For a given developer conditional on a choice of a , choosing q over $q' \neq q$ implies that $s(a, q) - C(a, q) > s(a, q') - C(a, q')$. Thus, as long as there is a unique optimal quantity conditional on the quality choice, then all developers choosing a given a , will choose the same q .

quality level (a, q_a) is:

$$\int_{\tilde{s}_0} \Pr(\pi_a > \tilde{s}_0) = \int_{\tilde{s}_0} e^{-(s(a, q_a) - C(a, q_a))^{-\theta}} dG(\tilde{s}), \quad (87)$$

where $G(\cdot)$ is the distribution on sales prices conditional on non-development.

Therefore, the number of redeveloped parcels in each period and to each quality level can be found by summing the above expression over the distribution of building valuations across the city.

A number of interesting new dynamics build off of the results of the model in our main text. For example, through markups, exogenous changes in demand for luxury housing may lead to switches from low income to luxury redevelopment and increase the pricing power of lower income housing landlords.

B Ownership Matching

Here we describe how we match buildings to owner groups. This procedure is necessary because a large portion of reported rental building owners are corporate entities.⁵⁰ Thus the reported ownership structure underestimates the degree of common ownership.

The NYC Department of Housing Preservation and Development (HPD) requires that building owners register each building with multiple dwellings (or that is inhabited primarily by non-family members) and compiles this registration list to create the Multiple Dwelling Registry and Contacts (MDRC). Importantly, the MDRC assigns a unique ID to each building-owner pair and for each owner lists the names of the main ‘shareholders’ of the corporate owner (or direct owner if applicable). Building owners must re-register annually. Thus, we have the ingredients to find common ownership across rental buildings.

We face two data challenges in matching buildings to owners using the MDRC.⁵¹ First, we only have MDRC lists for scattered years: 2012, 2014, 2015, 2017, 2018, 2020, and 2022. The MDRC lists are updated quarterly by the HPD; however, vintage files are not stored publicly, and FOIA attempts have been fruitless. Thus, we have collected these files based on archived web-pages and, for 2012 and 2015, through the generosity of the NYU Furman Center. Second, the MDRC does not link buildings by common owners and is not built to do this; rather, the files are designed only to identify a single building’s owner. Thus, there is no identifier that links owners across buildings other than their names. We deal with each in turn.

To create a building owner panel, we append the MDRC annual files together and ‘back-fill’ the ownership from MDRC information for missing years. That is, if we observe a building-owner pair for year 2020, then we assume the owner is the same from 2020, 2019, 2018, and so on, until we have another observation. One check for this is that we can see if the corporate owner has not changed, as if there is a change in ownership typically the corporate name also changes; however, this is not definitive since ownership of the corporate owner may change. When constructing the MDRC, we arrange the shareholder names based on frequency.⁵²

We then merge this with our DOF/PLUTO building year panel of rental buildings.

⁵⁰We use the term ‘corporate entity’ loosely; some building owners are truly corporations while others are limited liability companies, sole proprietorships, partnerships, or cooperatives.

⁵¹Technically, the MDRC are two different files: the Multiple Dwelling List (MDL) and the Registration Contacts (RD) list. We merge the two together by a common building identifier.

⁵²For example, if name A is associated with 5 buildings and name B with 4 buildings, then for any set of buildings with both names $\{A, B\}$ we designate name A as the primary name.

Table A1 reports the match rate for the main four boroughs by year used in the rent sample.

Table A1: Match Rate Across Boroughs

	BX	BK	MN	QN
2007	0.94	0.93	0.96	0.89
2008	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.89
2009	0.94	0.92	0.95	0.88
2010	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.89
2011	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.89
2012	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.88
2013	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.88
2014	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.88
2015	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.88
2016	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.88
2017	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.88
2018	0.94	0.92	0.96	0.88
2019	0.93	0.91	0.96	0.88

Note: 2007-2019 NYC residential buildings with 4+ units. Data from DOF, PLUTO, MDRC files. Match rate between from PLUTO-FAR and MDRC lists.

Finally, we use a text matching procedure to ensure that the reported building corporate owner matches the MDRC corporate owner name. We match about 91% of our rental sample buildings to the MDRC using building identifiers and year, and of these we match about 82% of owners. We can treat these buildings two different ways. First, we could ignore the difference in owners between the two datasets, which could exaggerate concentration. Second, we could treat these non-matches as unique owners, which could attenuate concentration. We pursue the latter in the interest of providing the most conservative results.

To find all buildings that have common shareholders, we again perform a text matching procedure across buildings within a Neighborhood Tabulation Area (NTA) and year pair.⁵³ We perform this procedure for each NTA-year pair in the four main boroughs of NYC.⁵⁴ Our text-matching procedure is admittedly *ad hoc*, as we have fine-tuned it to reduce false positive and false negatives. We calculate multiple similarity scores including

⁵³An NTA is a NYC-specific statistical geography composed of contiguous Census tracts.

⁵⁴We hesitate to expand beyond NTA areas as our matching procedure uses only first and last names; e.g., there could be many owners named Joe Smith across the city but the chance is lower within a local geography.

multiple ‘n-grams’, token matches, and ‘sound’ matches, and then use different thresholds based on our judgment. For example, if two owners have over 90% of the same 1-grams, then we call this a match, or if they have over 60% of 3-grams *in the same order*, then a match. We also use additional filters for neighborhoods that have too many matches, typically Chinese or Italian ethnic neighborhoods. For a small but non-trivial set of initially unmatched buildings, we are able to use common corporate names to match these owners. If a building does not match the MDRC or corporate name of another building, then we assume it is owned by a single-property owner.

Ultimately, we are able to match 85% of our rental sample. In Table A2 we present the percent matched for the sample that we use when constructing HHI and ownership at the NTA-level.

Table A2: Final Ownership Match Rate Across Boroughs

	BX	BK	MN	QN
2007	0.85	0.81	0.88	0.78
2008	0.86	0.82	0.89	0.79
2009	0.87	0.83	0.89	0.80
2010	0.89	0.84	0.90	0.81
2011	0.89	0.85	0.91	0.82
2012	0.88	0.84	0.91	0.80
2013	0.89	0.84	0.91	0.80
2014	0.89	0.84	0.91	0.81
2015	0.89	0.85	0.91	0.81
2016	0.90	0.85	0.92	0.81
2017	0.90	0.85	0.92	0.81
2018	0.90	0.85	0.92	0.81
2019	0.90	0.84	0.91	0.81

Note: 2007-2019 NYC residential buildings with 4+ units. Data from DOF, PLUTO, MDRC files. Match rate is buildings with an owner matched to their building.

C Additional Empirical Results

In this appendix, we present additional empirical results. First, we present basic correlations between 421a program participation and building observables. Second, we present robustness results for Table 2 Panel B. We drop NTAs that have fewer than 100 buildings in a given year. Finally, we present correlations of our building-level OPE estimates with building and Census tract characteristics and with NTA HHI.

C.1 421a Correlations

The 421a program is a New York City property tax exemption designed to incentivize the construction and renovation of multi-family rental housing. To examine how participation in this subsidy program correlates with building characteristics and financial outcomes, we estimate a series of building-level panel regressions. Specifically, we regress logged building outcomes on an indicator for 421a subsidy receipt:

$$\ln Y_{jt} = \alpha_j + \gamma_t + \beta \cdot \mathbf{1}[421a_{jt}] + u_{jt}, \quad (88)$$

where Y_{jt} denotes the outcome of interest for building i in year t and α_j and γ_t are building and year fixed effects. Standard errors are clustered at the Neighborhood Tabulation Area (NTA) level to account for spatial correlation in unobservables. The sample consists of single-use rental buildings observed annually from 2007 to 2019 with at least four residential units.

Table A3 presents the results. The adoption of 421a subsidies is associated with modest increases in building area (2 percent) and the number of units (1 percent), consistent with the program's objective of encouraging new construction or expansion. Average rents decline by approximately 9 percent following subsidy adoption, reflecting the affordability requirements typically bundled with 421a participation. Similarly, gross income falls by 8 percent, a natural consequence of reduced rents per unit.

The most notable finding concerns net operating income (NOI), which declines by 18 percent following 421a adoption. This result may appear puzzling at first glance: if subsidies reduce tax burdens, one might expect NOI, defined as gross income less operating expenses, to rise or remain stable. However, NOI as recorded in the data is measured *net of any subsidy value*. The observed decline therefore does not imply that subsidized buildings are unprofitable in absolute terms. Rather, it suggests that, on a pre-subsidy basis,

many 421a recipients experience substantially lower net returns than comparable unsubsidized buildings. Within the framework of our model, where optimal subsidies target buildings at the margin of profitability, this pattern is consistent with some degree of inefficient subsidy allocation; e.g., subsidies flowing to buildings that would have required larger inducements, or conversely, subsidies being awarded to buildings that might have been viable without public support.

We emphasize that these estimates capture correlations rather than causal effects. The decision to participate in the 421a program is endogenous: buildings that opt into the program likely differ systematically from non-participants in ways that may be correlated with the outcomes we examine. The building fixed effects help control for time-invariant unobserved heterogeneity; nevertheless, the results should be interpreted as descriptive evidence on how subsidized buildings differ from their unsubsidized counterparts in the years surrounding program adoption, rather than as causal impacts of the subsidy itself.

Table A3: Impact of 421a Subsidy

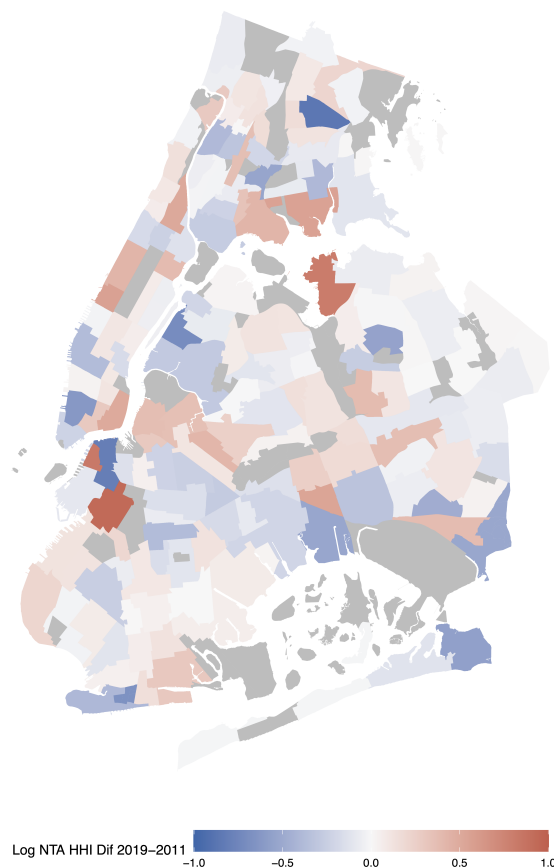
	Ln Building Area (1)	Ln Units (2)	Ln Rent (3)	Ln GI (4)	Ln NOI (5)
421a Adoption	0.02 (0.01)	0.01 (0.01)	-0.09 (0.02)	-0.08 (0.02)	-0.18 (0.05)
Building FEs	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
Year FEs	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
Observations	331,202	331,202	297,742	297,850	108,783

Note: The table reports the results from regressions of the natural log of building area, total units, average rent, gross income, and net operating income on an indicator for 421a adoption. All specifications include building and year FEs. Regressions are at the building-year level using all single-use rental buildings in New York City, from 2007 to 2019. Standard errors are clustered at the NTA level for all columns.

C.2 HHI Results

Cross-Sectional HHI Variation To highlight the cross-sectional variation in HHI, in Figure A.2 we plot the log difference in NTA HHI from 2019 to 2011. The average log difference is marginally negative while the interquartile range is about 0.24 log points. Overall, the HHI time-series variation is distributed around the city and also varies within each borough. Each borough has an average near zero and an IQR about the same as NYC as a whole.

Figure A.2: Log Change in NTA HHI from 2011 to 2019



Note: The figure displays the change in NTA HHI for each NTA. Blue values represent HHI decreases (less concentration) and red values represent HHI increases (greater concentration).

Robustness to Small NTAs In Table A4, we provide a robustness test for Panel B of Table 2 by dropping the observations where NTA-Year count is fewer than 100. This mitigates cases where small NTAs with outlier concentration levels could drive results. However, we find that our results remain essentially the same if not slightly stronger once we drop these buildings.

Robustness to New Buildings In Table A5 we assess whether new buildings drive our results. Our prior is that new buildings are rare in NYC, and so this is unlikely to drive the city-wide variation we see; however, at the NTA-level the effect could be quite large.

We construct two alternate versions of HHI, the first drops all buildings built after 2010 and the second drops all buildings with a major construction / renovation after 2010 (which includes dropping those built after 2010). To make comparisons fair across specifi-

Table A4: Ownership Concentration and Rent: Drop Smallest NTAs

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Log Leave-Out NTA HHI	0.04 (0.02)	0.05 (0.02)	0.04 (0.02)	0.05 (0.02)	0.05 (0.02)	0.04 (0.02)
Log Owner Share in NTA				0.01 (0.00)	0.01 (0.00)	0.00 (0.00)
Time-varying controls	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
NTA FEs	Y	N	N	Y	N	N
Tract FEs	N	Y	N	N	Y	N
Building FEs	N	N	Y	N	N	Y
Observations	528,311	528,307	527,089	528,311	528,307	527,089

Note: The table reports the results from regressions of log of building average unit monthly rent on the log of the ‘leave-out’ HHI, calculated at the building-level by leaving out the building owner’s units. Time-varying controls include log building age, log years since renovation, log average unit sqft, and an indicator for having an elevator. Regressions are at the building-year level using all single-use rental buildings in New York City, from 2007 to 2019. We drop NTA-YEAR observations with fewer than 100 observations. Standard errors are clustered at the NTA-level for all columns.

cations, we drop all buildings with a major renovation after 2010 from all three regressions (else we would have different sized samples). Column (1) uses our original construction of HHI, column (2) uses an HHI that omits buildings built after 2010, and column (3) uses an HHI that omits new buildings and those with a major renovation after 2010.

In Column (1), we see that the estimate is essentially the same as from our main specification using building FEs. Columns (2,3) are attenuated about 1/8th of the baseline estimate. On balance, this indicates that our main specification’s effect is coming primarily from changes in ownership of the incumbent buildings, but a non-trivial amount comes from the entry of new buildings.

C.3 Zoning IV Heterogeneity

When we conducted our zoning analysis in Table 2 Panel A, we were reassured that the first stage coefficient and coefficient on the endogenous variable were so stable across specifications; nevertheless, our instrument’s mechanism does not appear to explain a statistically significant effect on rent. This disconnect caused us to consider where the instrument may have the most bite, and we decided to look at heterogeneity of the instrument’s effect on rent based on building age.

In Figure A.3, we show the estimated effect of the instrument on log rent separately by building age group: buildings less than 10 years old, buildings between 10 and 20 years old, and buildings more than 20 years old. To do so, we estimate the following interacted

Table A5: Ownership Concentration and Rent: Drop New Buildings

Log Leave-One-Out NTA HHI	DV: Log Average Unit Rent		
	(1)	(2)	(3)
Baseline	0.042 (0.018)		
Drop New Buildings		0.036 (0.017)	
Drop New & Renovated Buildings			0.037 (0.018)
Building FEs	Y	Y	Y
Year FEs	Y	Y	Y
Observations	536,440	536,440	536,440

Note: The table reports robustness checks for the estimated relationship between ownership concentration and log average monthly rent at the building-year level. All specifications include log building age, log average unit square-footage, log years since renovation, and an indicator for having an elevator. All specifications absorb building and year fixed effects. Standard errors clustered at the NTA-level are reported in parentheses.

specification:

$$\ln[r_{jmt}] = \alpha_1 Z_{mt} + \alpha_2 D_{jmt}^{\text{Age}} + \alpha_3 Z_{mt} \cdot D_{jmt}^{\text{Age}} + \alpha_4 X_{jmt} + \lambda_j + \lambda_t + u_{jmt}, \quad (89)$$

where D^{Age} is a group-specific indicator, where the base group is building age less than 10 years. We then report the marginal effect of Z_{mt} for each age group: $\delta(D^{\text{Age}}) = \alpha_1 + \alpha_3 D^{\text{Age}}$. Thus, Figure A.3 reports the group-specific slope on the instrument.

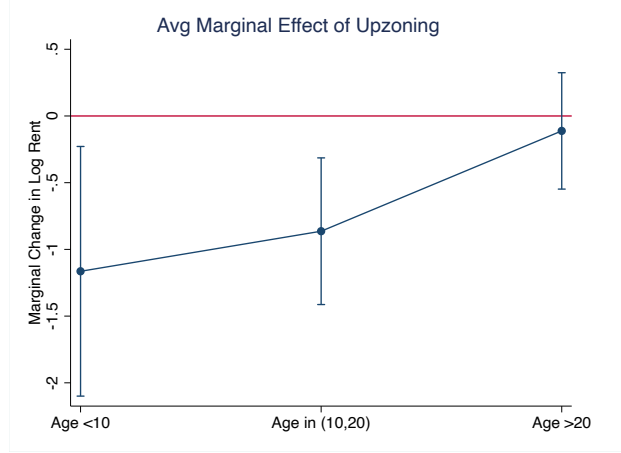
We see a clear gradient with age, where a large negative effect on rents at younger buildings attenuates towards zero for the older buildings. The clear explanation for the insignificant results is that over 97 percent of the data is for buildings over 20 years old. Upzoning appears to have the strongest effects for new buildings but negligible effects for other buildings.

C.4 OPE Heterogeneity

To explore heterogeneity in our own-price elasticity estimates, we do two sets of analysis using the Tax IV based OPE, derived from Table 3. Note, given the logit OPE formula, the variation in the different OPEs will be the same regardless of which IV estimate we use.⁵⁵

⁵⁵Logit-model based OPEs are calculated as $\hat{\epsilon}_j = \hat{\alpha}_j \cdot r_j \cdot (1 - s_j)$, where α is the marginal utility of consumption from the utility function of renters, r is the rent, and s is the market share.

Figure A.3: Reduced Form Heterogeneity Zoning on Rent



Note: The figure displays the group-specific slope on the instrument from the regression in 89.

That is, the different IV estimates of the OPE only have level differences based on the $\hat{\alpha}^{IV}$ estimates.

We emphasize here that these regressions are non-causal and can only show how the model-based OPE estimates and different characteristics vary across equilibrium values. While non-causal, we think these are nevertheless interesting to see how the correlations match with economic intuition.

Building Characteristics First, we regress the estimated OPE on building-level characteristics. That is, we run the following specification:

$$\hat{\varepsilon}_{jt}^{\text{Tax}} = \beta X_{jt} + \text{FE}_{NTA} + \text{FE}_{year} + u_{jt}. \quad (90)$$

Table A6 displays results. We see that CBD distance and the two measures of building age all have positive coefficients that push the elasticity towards zero (i.e., more inelastic), which is associated with higher markups. Square-footage, having an elevator, and being zoning constrained have negative coefficients that push the elasticity more negative, which is associated with lower markups. Interestingly, subway distance has essentially no effect on the elasticity.

Table A6: OPE Heterogeneity, Building Characteristics

	Estimated OPE (1)
Log CBD Distance	1.345 (0.433)
Log Subway Distance	0.004 (0.024)
Log Building Age	0.154 (0.037)
Log Effective Age	0.159 (0.021)
Log Avg Sqft	-3.876 (0.220)
Elevator	-0.231 (0.072)
Zoning Constrained	-0.177 (0.037)
NTA FEs	Y
Year FEs	Y
Observations	346,973

Note: This table displays coefficients from a regression of the Tax IV OPE estimates, as derived from Table 3, on building-level covariates. We include NTA and Year FEs, and standard errors are clustered at the NTA-level.

Spatial Characteristics Second, Figure A.4 displays expected Tax IV based OPE values for quartiles of different spatial characteristics. We calculate the across building quartiles of different variables (e.g., NTA HHI or Median Tract Income) rather than the quartiles across NTAs. This ensures that each quartile has an equal number of building observations. For a given spatial characteristic k , we run the following specification:

$$\hat{\varepsilon}_{jt}^{\text{Tax}} = \beta_1^k Q_{jt}^{1,k} + \beta_2^k Q_{jt}^{2,k} + \beta_3^k Q_{jt}^{3,k} + \beta_4^k Q_{jt}^{4,k} + \text{FE}_{NTA} + \text{FE}_{year} + u_{jt}, \quad (91)$$

and then we calculate and plot $\hat{\varepsilon}_{jt}^{\text{Tax}} | Q^k$ across the quartiles.

The results show that predicted elasticity values do not vary by too much, as all point estimates are essentially between $(-5.25, -4.5)$. However, we can see a few patterns.

One such pattern is that HHI and the OPE are inversely related so that areas with a higher level of concentration are associated with more elastic demand. This is somewhat surprising as one would expect that the higher concentration would be associated with more inelastic demand, which would imply higher markups. However, we see the same economic pattern with rival buildings, where having more rivals is associated with more inelastic demand.

Among spatial characteristics, the OPE varies most with the tract's non-white population share. Here, we see that buildings in tracts with low percent non-white have more elastic demand, while areas with the highest percent non-white have more inelastic demand. This finding is consistent with Watson and Ziv (2025), who find higher pass-through rates are associated with tracts with a larger non-white population share.

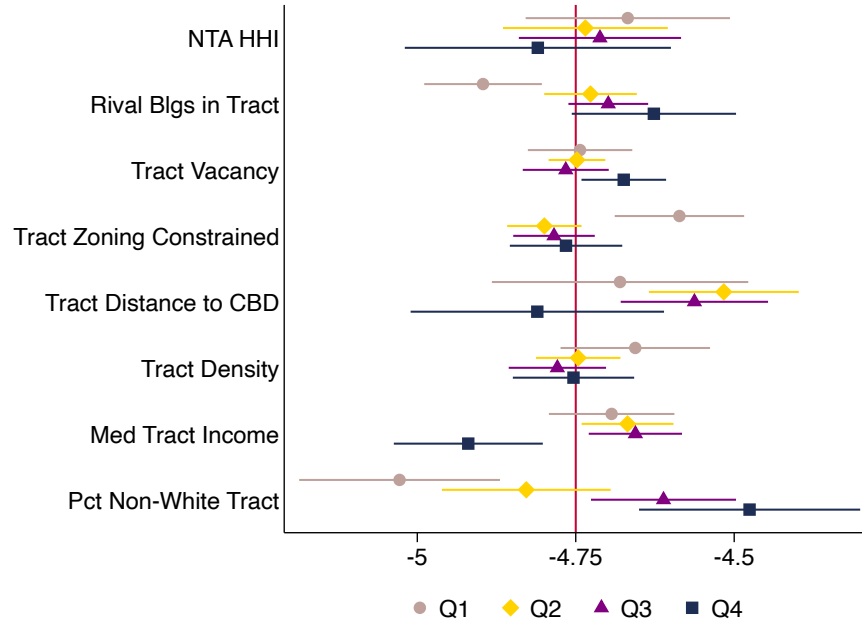
NTA Variation Figure A.5 displays the variation in OPEs across NTAs. We plot the absolute value of the model-implied OPEs from our demand estimation using our Tax IV from Table 3.

C.5 Markup as a Percent of Rent

Table A7 expresses the markup results from Table 4 as a percent markup rather than dollar level market. Panel A shows that our estimates of the markup percent over rent are broadly consistent with the dollar level estimates.

However, Panels B and C show that the correlation between the values in percent terms breaks down. The low correlation is due to two empirical facts. First, there is much less variation in the empirical markups; e.g., the empirical percent markups have a standard

Figure A.4: OPE Heterogeneity, Spatial Characteristics



Note: The figure displays predicted own-price elasticities across different spatial characteristics. We use the Tax IV based OPE estimates. Regressions include NTA and Year FEs and standard errors are clustered at the NTA-level.

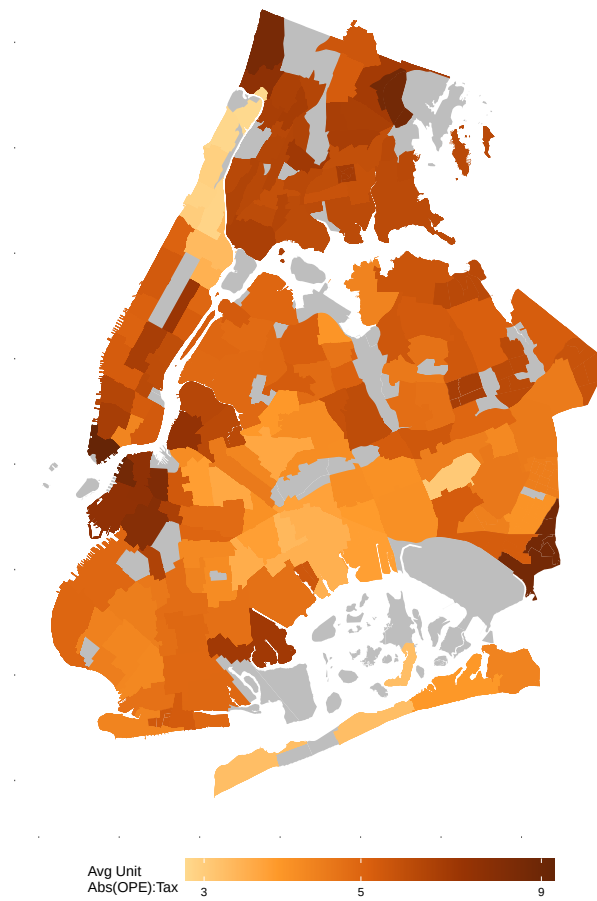
deviation of about 0.06 while the model-based have standard deviations in the range of 0.10–0.15. Second, we noticed that empirical and model-based markups in levels are both positively correlated with rent; however, as a markup rate, the empirical rate is positively correlated while the model-based are negatively correlated. Moreover, at a theoretical level, as we mention in the main text, the two variables measure different concepts: the empirical markups capture averages, while the model-based markups capture markups at the margin.

C.6 Alternative Markets

In this appendix, we replicate our estimation results using alternative market definitions. First, we present demand results using borough markets. We omit the HHI results because there would not be enough meaningful variation in HHI at the borough level. Tables A8 and A9 contain these results.

Second, we present both HHI and demand results using PUMA based markets. PUMAs are collections of NTAs such that the total population of the PUMA is at least 100,000. Tables A10, A11, and A12 contain these results.

Figure A.5: OPE Heterogeneity, NTAs



Note: The figure displays the absolute value of the OPE based on the demand estimation using our Tax IV from Table 3.

Table A7: Monthly Rent Markups

	Empirical (1)	Tax (2)	BLP (3)	Historic Costs (4)
Panel A: Means				
Full	0.33	0.24	.42	0.50
Common	0.33	0.21	.38	0.47
Uncons. New	0.39	0.18	.32	0.39
Panel B: Correlation Coefficient				
ρ	-	0.00	-0.01	0.00
Panel C: Regression Comparison				
β	-	0.12	0.08	0.07
R^2	-	0.58	0.58	0.58
Within R^2	-	0.01	0.01	0.01

Note: The table compares the monthly rent markups using our empirical data in column (1) versus using the estimated parameters from Table 3. We calculate the model-implied markup by multiplying $r \cdot (1/\text{abs}(\epsilon))$. In Panel A, we display the means of the variables for all available observations ('Full') and for a common sample ('Common'). In Panel B, we display the correlation coefficient. In Panel C, we display selected regression output from regressing the empirical markup on the three model-implied markups with a building fixed effect. For both panels, we winsorize the data at the 1% level and use only data from 2011 and onward.

For both approaches, our results are largely consistent with the main text results; however, we do suffer from a loss of power for both alternative markets. While the PUMA HHI results are qualitatively the same as those in the main text results, the demand point estimates are nearly identical to the main text. We believe the demand results are so similar because of our *within-tract* identification and that one minus the building market share is approximately the same at the NTA, PUMA, and borough levels.

Table A8: Demand Estimation Results: Borough

	OLS (1)	BLP (2)	Tax (3)	Historic Costs (4)
α	1.01 (0.18)	-14.07 (4.03)	-24.78 (3.94)	-11.49 (2.46)
Robust F Stat	-	40.60	59.90	24.70
Robust AR Stat for Rent	-	29.69	137.70	38.57
Observations	351,407	351,407	181,556	333,127
Med(ε_{jbt})	0.18	-2.49	-4.38	-2.03
Med(ε_{jbt} Unconst., New)	0.24	-3.40	-5.99	-2.78
Pct Elastic	0%	100%	100%	99%
Med(L_{jbt} Unconst., New)	0.00	0.29	0.17	0.36
Avg($\varepsilon_{bt}^{\text{Agg}}$)	0.05	-0.66	-1.16	-0.54

Note: The table displays parameter estimates from logit demand models. The own-price elasticity is ε , the Lerner rule is $-1/\varepsilon$, and the aggregate price elasticity, ε^{Agg} , is based on [Berry and Jia \(2010\)](#). Buildings are ‘unconstrained’ if *not* rent stabilized and *not* zoning-constrained; buildings are considered new if less than 10 years old. We estimate an (1) OLS model and three just-identified IV models using (2) ‘BLP instruments,’ (3) the synthetic tax instrument, and (4) historic cost instruments based on the year of building construction. All models include Census tract-year fixed effects, controls for log distance to nearest subway station, building age, years since renovation, average unit square-feet, and an indicator for having an elevator. Standard errors are clustered by NTA and the first stage F statistic and the Anderson-Rubin F statistic for the estimated coefficients are cluster robust as well.

Table A9: Monthly Rent Markups: Borough

	Empirical (1)	Tax (2)	BLP (3)	Historic Costs (4)
Panel A: Means				
Full	\$447	\$269	\$472	\$576
Common	\$455	\$278	\$489	\$599
Unconst., New	\$570	\$224	\$395	\$484
Panel B: Correlation Coefficient				
ρ	-	0.46	0.48	0.51
Panel C: Regression Comparison				
β	-	1.43	0.81	0.67
R^2	-	0.89	0.90	0.89
Within R^2	-	0.17	0.17	0.17

Note: The table compares the monthly rent markups using our empirical data in column (1) versus using the estimated parameters from Table 3. We calculate the model-implied markup by multiplying $r \cdot (1/\text{abs}(\varepsilon))$. In Panel A, we display the means of the variables for all available observations ('Full') and for a common sample ('Common'). In Panel B, we display the correlation coefficient. In Panel C, we display selected regression output from regressing the empirical markup on the three model-implied markups with a building fixed effect. For both panels, we winsorize the data at the 1% level and use only data from 2011 and onward.

Table A10: Market Conditions and Rent: PUMA

Panel A: Zoning Constraints and Rent						
	(1)	OLS (2)	(3)	(4)	2SLS (5)	(6)
PUMA Share Zoning Constrained	0.67 (0.31)	0.64 (0.32)	0.56 (0.31)	0.14 (0.61)	0.09 (0.61)	0.03 (0.56)
First Stage Coef				-0.81 (0.10)	-0.81 (0.10)	-0.81 (0.10)
KP F Stat				82.40	83.45	87.81
Time-varying controls	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
PUMA FEs	Y	N	N	Y	N	N
Tract FEs	N	Y	N	N	Y	N
Building FEs	N	N	Y	N	N	Y
Observations	540,606	540,598	539,339	540,606	540,598	539,339
Panel B: Ownership Concentration and Rent						
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Log Leave-Out PUMA HHI	0.06 (0.03)	0.07 (0.03)	0.06 (0.03)	0.06 (0.03)	0.07 (0.03)	0.06 (0.03)
Log Owner Share in PUMA				0.01 (0.00)	0.00 (0.00)	-0.00 (0.00)
Time-varying controls	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
PUMA FEs	Y	N	N	Y	N	N
Tract FEs	N	Y	N	N	Y	N
Building FEs	N	N	Y	N	N	Y
Observations	540,606	540,598	539,339	540,606	540,598	539,339

Note: The table reports the results from multiple sets of regressions. Panel A reports regressions of log average building rent on the share of buildings that are zoning constrained in the PUMA, where columns (1-3) are for OLS results and columns (4-6) are 2SLS results, using the 'Bloomberg upzonings' as a source of identification. Panel B reports regressions of log of building average unit monthly rent on the log of the 'leave-one-out' HHI, calculated at the building-level by leaving out the building owner's units. Time-varying controls include log building age, log years since renovation, log average unit sqft, and an indicator for having an elevator. Regressions are at the building-year level using all single-use rental buildings in New York City, from 2007 to 2019. Standard errors are clustered at the PUMA level for all columns.

Table A11: Demand Estimation Results: PUMA

	OLS (1)	BLP (2)	Tax (3)	Historic Costs (4)
α	1.04 (0.22)	-14.39 (4.86)	-26.32 (5.24)	-11.85 (2.87)
Robust F Stat	-	31.23	39.06	17.78
Robust AR Stat for Rent	-	20.29	89.17	29.26
Observations	343,212	343,212	176,205	324,954
Med(ε_{jbt})	0.18	-2.52	-4.61	-2.08
Med(ε_{jbt} Unconst., New)	0.24	-3.40	-6.21	-2.80
Pct Elastic	0%	100%	100%	99%
Med(L_{jbt} Unconst., New)	0.00	0.29	0.16	0.35
Avg($\varepsilon_{bt}^{\text{Agg}}$)	0.04	-0.59	-1.07	-0.48

Note: The table displays parameter estimates from Logit demand models. The own-price elasticity is ε , the Lerner rule is $-1/\varepsilon$, and the aggregate price elasticity, ε^{Agg} , is based on [Berry and Jia \(2010\)](#). Buildings are ‘unconstrained’ if *not* rent stabilized and *not* zoning-constrained; buildings are considered new if less than 10 years old. We estimate an (1) OLS model and three just-identified IV models using (2) ‘BLP instruments’, (3) the synthetic tax instrument, and (4) historic cost instruments based on the year of building construction. All models include Census tract-year fixed effects, controls for log distance to nearest subway station, building age, years since renovation, average unit square-feet, and an indicator for having an elevator. Standard errors are clustered by PUMA and the first stage F statistic and the Anderson-Rubin F statistic for the estimated coefficients are cluster robust as well.

Table A12: Monthly Rent Markups: PUMA

	Empirical (1)	Tax (2)	BLP (3)	Historic Costs (4)
Panel A: Means				
Full	\$447	\$255	\$465	\$563
Common	\$463	\$267	\$488	\$592
Unconst. New	\$570	\$216	\$395	\$479
Panel B: Correlation Coefficient				
ρ	-	.45	.47	.49
Panel C: Regression Comparison				
β	-	1.52	.83	.69
R^2	-	.89	.89	.89
Within R^2	-	.17	.17	.17

Note: The table compares the monthly rent markups using our empirical data in column (1) versus using the estimated parameters from Table 3. We calculate the model-implied markup by multiplying $r \cdot (1/\text{abs}(\varepsilon))$. In Panel A, we display the means of the variables for all available observations ('Full') and for a common sample ('Common'). In Panel B, we display the correlation coefficient. In Panel C, we display selected regression output from regressing the empirical markup on the three model-implied markups with a building fixed effect. For both panels, we winsorize the data at the 1% level and use only data from 2011 and onward.